CIE A-Level Physics

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Topic 13 — Gravitational Fields
- Topics 14, 15 & 16 — Thermal Physics
- Topic 17 — Oscillations
- Topic 18 — Electric Fields
- Topic 19 — Capacitance
- Topic 20 — Magnetic Fields
- Topic 21 — Alternating Currents
- Topic 22 — Quantum Physics
- Topic 23 — Nuclear Physics
- Topic 24 — Medical Physics
- Topic 25 — Astronomy and Cosmology

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CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 13

Gravitational Fields

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Newton's Law of Gravitation
- Gravitational Field Strength
- Gravitational Potential
- Orbital Motion & Kepler's Third Law
- Escape Velocity

1 Core Concepts and Definitions

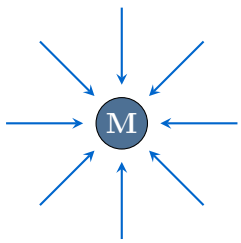
Gravitational Field

A **gravitational field** is a region of space in which a mass experiences a force due to the gravitational attraction of another mass.

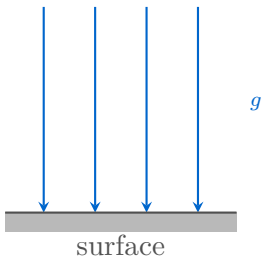
- Gravitational fields are always **attractive** — there is no gravitational repulsion.
- Any mass creates a gravitational field in the space around it.
- A **test mass** placed in the field will experience a force towards the source mass.

Radial vs Uniform Fields

- **Radial field** (e.g., around a planet): field lines point towards the centre; g decreases with distance.
- **Uniform field** (e.g., near Earth's surface over small distances): field lines are parallel and equally spaced; g is approximately constant at 9.81 N kg^{-1}.



Radial Field



Uniform Field

2 Newton's Law of Gravitation

Newton's Law of Gravitation

$$F = \frac{Gm_1m_2}{r^2}$$

F	= gravitational force between the two masses (N)
G	= gravitational constant = 6.67×10^{-11} N m^{2}kg^{-2}
m_1, m_2	= the two point masses (or uniform spheres) (kg)
r	= separation between centres of mass (m)

Key Points

- The force is always **attractive**.
- It applies strictly to **point masses**, but also works for uniform spheres if r is measured from the centre.
- r is the **centre-to-centre** distance — not surface to surface.

- The force obeys an **inverse-square law**: double the distance, quarter the force.

3 Gravitational Field Strength

Definition of Gravitational Field Strength g

The **gravitational field strength** at a point is the gravitational force exerted per unit mass on a small test mass placed at that point.

$$g = \frac{F}{m} \qquad \text{units: N kg}^{-1} \equiv \text{m s}^{-2}$$

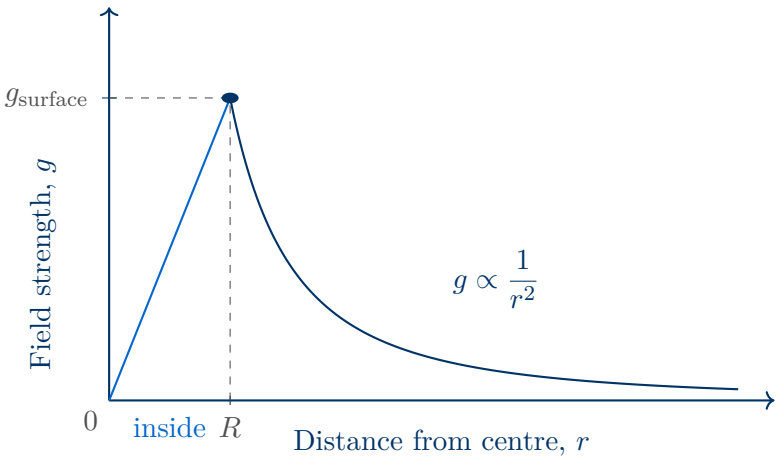
g is a **vector** quantity, directed towards the source mass.

Field Strength Formulae

$$g = \frac{GM}{r^2}$$

g = gravitational field strength at distance r (N kg^{-1})
G = gravitational constant (N m^2 kg^{-2})
M = mass of body creating the field (kg)
r = distance from centre of M (m)

Variation of g with distance r



Common Mistake

Do not confuse g (field strength, N kg^{-1}) with G (the universal gravitational constant, N m^2 kg^{-2}). They are completely different quantities!

4 Gravitational Potential

Definition of Gravitational Potential ϕ

The **gravitational potential** at a point is the work done per unit mass to move a small test mass from infinity to that point.

$$\phi = \frac{W}{m} \qquad \text{units: J kg}^{-1}$$

Gravitational potential is always **negative** (zero at infinity; work is done *by* gravity as mass moves inwards, so the system loses potential energy).

Gravitational Potential Formulae

$$\phi = -\frac{GM}{r} \qquad E_p = m\phi = -\frac{GMm}{r}$$

ϕ = gravitational potential at distance r (J kg^{-1})
E_p = gravitational potential energy (J)
G = 6.67×10^{-11} N m^2 kg^{-2}
M = mass of body creating the field (kg)
r = distance from centre of M (m)

4.1 Relationship Between g and ϕ

Field Strength from Potential Gradient

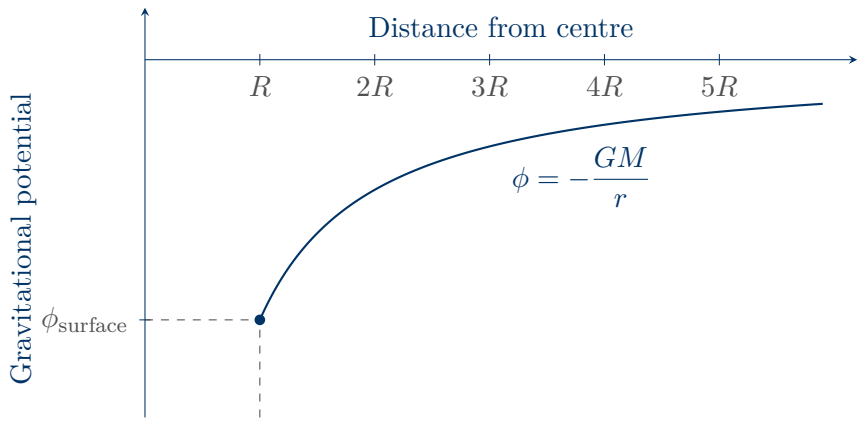
$$g = -\frac{\Delta\phi}{\Delta r}$$

Interpreting the Gradient

g is the **negative gradient** of the potential–distance graph. On a ϕ–r graph:

- A steeper gradient $\Rightarrow$ stronger field (larger g)
- The gradient becomes shallower as r increases $\Rightarrow$ g decreases
- The area under a g–r graph gives the change in potential $\Delta\phi$

Graph of ϕ against r



$\phi \to 0$ as $r \to \infty$

Equipotential Surfaces

An **equipotential surface** is a surface on which the gravitational potential is the same everywhere.

- No work is done moving a mass along an equipotential surface.
- Equipotentials are always **perpendicular** to field lines.
- For a point mass (or uniform sphere), equipotentials are concentric spheres.

5 Circular Orbits and Satellites

For an object of mass m in a circular orbit of radius r around a mass M, the gravitational force provides the centripetal force:

Orbital Mechanics

$$\frac{GMm}{r^2} = \frac{mv^2}{r} = mr\omega^2 = mr\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}\right)^2$$

$$\therefore \quad v = \sqrt{\frac{GM}{r}} \qquad \text{(orbital speed)}$$

$$T^2 = \frac{4\pi^2}{GM}r^3 \qquad \text{(Kepler's Third Law)}$$

Kepler's Third Law

$$T^2 \propto r^3$$

The square of the orbital period is proportional to the cube of the orbital radius. The constant of proportionality is $\frac{4\pi^2}{GM}$.

5.1 Energy in Circular Orbits

Energy of a Satellite in Circular Orbit

$$E_k = \frac{1}{2}mv^2 = \frac{GMm}{2r} \qquad \text{(kinetic energy — always positive)}$$

$$E_p = -\frac{GMm}{r} \qquad \text{(potential energy — always negative)}$$

$$E_{total} = E_k + E_p = -\frac{GMm}{2r} \qquad \text{(total energy — always negative)}$$

As r increases: v decreases, E_k decreases, E_p increases, E_{total} increases (becomes less negative).

5.2 Geostationary Orbits

Geostationary Satellite

A **geostationary** satellite has:

- An orbital period of exactly **24 hours**
- An orbit in the **equatorial plane**
- Movement in the **same direction** as Earth's rotation (west to east)
- An orbital radius of approximately 4.2×10^7 m ($\approx 36\,000$ km altitude)

It appears **stationary** relative to a point on Earth's surface.

Uses: satellite TV, telecommunications, weather monitoring.

6 Escape Velocity

Definition of Escape Velocity

The **escape velocity** is the minimum speed at which an object must be projected from the surface of a body so that it can escape to infinity against the gravitational field, without any further energy input.

Escape Velocity

Setting total energy = 0 at infinity:

$$\frac{1}{2}mv_{esc}^2 - \frac{GMm}{R} = 0$$

$$v_{esc} = \sqrt{\frac{2GM}{R}}$$

Note: $v_{esc} = \sqrt{2}\, v_{orbital}$ at the same radius.

7 Formula Summary Sheet

Formula	Quantity	Units
$F = \dfrac{Gm_1m_2}{r^2}$	Gravitational force	N
$g = \dfrac{F}{m}$	Field strength (definition)	N kg^{-1}
$g = \dfrac{GM}{r^2}$	Field strength (point mass)	N kg^{-1}
$\phi = -\dfrac{GM}{r}$	Gravitational potential	J kg^{-1}
$E_p = -\dfrac{GMm}{r}$	Gravitational PE	J
$g = -\dfrac{\Delta\phi}{\Delta r}$	Field from potential gradient	N kg^{-1}
$v = \sqrt{\dfrac{GM}{r}}$	Orbital speed	m s^{-1}
$T^2 = \dfrac{4\pi^2r^3}{GM}$	Kepler's Third Law	s^2, m^3
$v_{esc} = \sqrt{\dfrac{2GM}{R}}$	Escape velocity	m s^{-1}

Constants: $G = 6.67 \times 10^{-11}$ N m^{2}kg^{-2}, $M_E = 5.97 \times 10^{24}$ kg, $R_E = 6.37 \times 10^6$ m

8 Exam Technique and Problem-Solving Strategy

Step-by-Step Strategy for Calculation Questions

1. **Identify** what you are asked to find.
2. **List** the quantities given; convert units if needed (e.g. days → seconds, km → m).
3. **Select** the appropriate formula.
4. **Substitute** values carefully, showing all working.
5. **Check** units and significant figures in your answer.

Common Errors — Avoid These!

- Using **diameter** instead of radius in $g = GM/r^2$.
- Forgetting the **negative sign** in $\phi = -GM/r$.
- Not converting **hours/days to seconds** before applying Kepler's Law.
- Confusing g (field strength, vector) with ϕ (potential, scalar).
- Saying $\phi = 0$ at the surface — it is zero only **at infinity**.

- Thinking higher orbit ⇒ faster orbital speed — it is **slower**.

9 Worked Examples

Example 1 — Field Strength at Altitude

Question: Calculate the gravitational field strength at a height of 400 km above Earth's surface. ($M_E = 5.97 \times 10^{24}$ kg, $R_E = 6.37 \times 10^6$ m)

Solution

Solution:
$r = R_E + h = 6.37 \times 10^6 + 4.00 \times 10^5 = 6.77 \times 10^6$ m

$$g = \frac{GM}{r^2} = \frac{6.67 \times 10^{-11} \times 5.97 \times 10^{24}}{(6.77 \times 10^6)^2}$$

$$g = \frac{3.98 \times 10^{14}}{4.58 \times 10^{13}} = \mathbf{8.69}\ \text{N kg}^{-\mathbf{1}}$$

Note: this is the field strength at the ISS orbit — astronauts are *not* weightless because gravity is zero!

Example 2 — Orbital Period Using Kepler's Third Law

Question: A satellite orbits Earth at a radius of 4.2×10^7 m. Calculate its orbital period.

Solution

Solution:

$$T^2 = \frac{4\pi^2 r^3}{GM} = \frac{4\pi^2 \times (4.2 \times 10^7)^3}{6.67 \times 10^{-11} \times 5.97 \times 10^{24}}$$

$$T^2 = \frac{4\pi^2 \times 7.41 \times 10^{22}}{3.98 \times 10^{14}} = 7.36 \times 10^9\ \text{s}^2$$

$$T = \sqrt{7.36 \times 10^9} = 8.58 \times 10^4\ \text{s} \approx \mathbf{23.8}\ \text{hours}$$

This is a geostationary orbit ($T \approx 24$ h).

Example 3 — Change in Gravitational Potential Energy

Question: A spacecraft of mass 2500 kg is moved from the Earth's surface to an altitude of 800 km. Calculate the increase in gravitational potential energy.

Solution

Solution:
$r_1 = 6.37 \times 10^6$ m, $\quad r_2 = 6.37 \times 10^6 + 8.00 \times 10^5 = 7.17 \times 10^6$ m

$$\Delta E_p = GMm\left(\frac{1}{r_1} - \frac{1}{r_2}\right)$$

$$\Delta E_p = 6.67 \times 10^{-11} \times 5.97 \times 10^{24} \times 2500 \times \left(\frac{1}{6.37 \times 10^6} - \frac{1}{7.17 \times 10^6}\right)$$

$$\Delta E_p = 9.95 \times 10^{17} \times 1.75 \times 10^{-8} = \mathbf{1.74 \times 10^{10}}\ \text{J}$$

10 Practice Exam Questions

Section A — Short Answer Questions

Q1. State Newton's Law of Gravitation.

[2 marks]

Q2. Define gravitational field strength and state its units.

[2 marks]

Q3. Explain why gravitational potential is always a negative quantity.

[2 marks]

Q4. The gravitational field strength at Earth's surface is 9.81 N kg^{-1}. Calculate the field strength at a distance of $3R_E$ from Earth's centre, where R_E is Earth's radius.

[2 marks]

Q5. Two planets, X and Y, orbit the same star. Planet X has an orbital radius twice that of planet Y. Determine the ratio T_X/T_Y.

[3 marks]

Section B — Longer Structured Questions

Q6. A satellite of mass m orbits a planet of mass M in a circular orbit of radius r.

(a) Show that the orbital speed of the satellite is given by $v = \sqrt{GM/r}$.

[2 marks]

(b) Show that the period of the orbit satisfies $T^2 = \dfrac{4\pi^2 r^3}{GM}$.

[2 marks]

(c) The satellite is moved to a lower orbit. Explain what happens to its:

- speed
- kinetic energy
- total energy

[3 marks]

Q7. The Moon orbits the Earth with a period of 27.3 days at a mean orbital radius of 3.84×10^8 m.

(a) Use this data to calculate the mass of the Earth.

[3 marks]

(b) Calculate the gravitational potential at the Moon's orbital radius.

[2 marks]

(c) A 75 kg astronaut travels from Earth's surface to the Moon's orbital radius. Calculate the change in gravitational potential energy.

[3 marks]

11 Mark Scheme and Answers

Q1. Any two masses exert an attractive force on each other [1]; the force is proportional to the product of their masses and inversely proportional to the square of their separation [1].

Q2. Gravitational field strength is the gravitational force per unit mass acting on a (small test) mass placed at that point [1]; units: N kg^{-1} (or m s^{-2}) [1].

Q3. Gravitational potential is defined as zero at infinity [1]; work is done by gravity as mass moves from infinity inward, so the potential decreases below zero — it is always negative [1].

Q4. $g \propto 1/r^2$; at $3R_E$, $g = 9.81/3^2 = 9.81/9 = \mathbf{1.09}$ N kg$^{\mathbf{-1}}$ [2].

Q5. By Kepler's Third Law: $T^2 \propto r^3$, so $\left(\frac{T_X}{T_Y}\right)^2 = \left(\frac{2r_Y}{r_Y}\right)^3 = 8$ [2]; $\frac{T_X}{T_Y} = \sqrt{8} = \mathbf{2\sqrt{2} \approx 2.83}$ [1].

Q6(a). Gravitational force = centripetal force: $\frac{GMm}{r^2} = \frac{mv^2}{r}$ [1]; cancel m, rearrange: $v = \sqrt{GM/r}$ [1].

Q6(b). Substitute $v = 2\pi r/T$ into result from (a) [1]; rearrange to get $T^2 = 4\pi^2 r^3/GM$ [1].

Q6(c). Speed **increases** [1]; KE **increases** [1]; total energy **decreases** (becomes more negative) [1].

Q7(a). $T = 27.3 \times 24 \times 3600 = 2.36 \times 10^6$ s; $M = \frac{4\pi^2 r^3}{GT^2} = \frac{4\pi^2(3.84 \times 10^8)^3}{6.67 \times 10^{-11}(2.36 \times 10^6)^2}$ [1] $= \mathbf{6.02 \times 10^{24}}$ kg [2].

Q7(b). $\phi = -\frac{GM}{r} = -\frac{6.67 \times 10^{-11} \times 6.02 \times 10^{24}}{3.84 \times 10^8} = \mathbf{-1.05 \times 10^6}$ J kg$^{\mathbf{-1}}$ [2].

Q7(c). $\Delta E_p = m\Delta\phi = m(\phi_{\text{Moon orbit}} - \phi_{\text{surface}})$ [1]; $\phi_{\text{surface}} = -GM/R_E = -6.25 \times 10^7$ J kg^{-1}; $\Delta\phi = -1.05\times10^6 - (-6.25\times10^7) = 6.14\times10^7$ J kg^{-1}; $\Delta E_p = 75\times6.14\times10^7 = \mathbf{4.6 \times 10^9}$ J [2].

12 Revision Checklist

Use this checklist to track your understanding. Tick each box when you are confident:

	Learning Objective	Confidence (1–3)
☐	State and apply Newton's Law of Gravitation	
☐	Define gravitational field strength; use $g = F/m$ and $g = GM/r^2$	
☐	Sketch field line and equipotential diagrams	
☐	Define gravitational potential and explain why it is negative	
☐	Use $\phi = -GM/r$ and $E_p = -GMm/r$	
☐	Apply the relationship $g = -\Delta\phi/\Delta r$	
☐	Derive the expression for orbital speed	
☐	State and apply Kepler's Third Law ($T^2 \propto r^3$)	
☐	Analyse energy changes in satellite orbits	
☐	Describe the properties of a geostationary satellite	
☐	Derive and apply the formula for escape velocity	
☐	Interpret graphs of g vs r and ϕ vs r	

Key: 1 = Need more work 2 = Getting there 3 = Confident

Good luck with your revision!

Remember: understanding *why* formulas work is more powerful than memorising them. Practice drawing diagrams and deriving key results from first principles.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 14, 15 & 16

Thermal Physics

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Temperature and Thermal Equilibrium
- Temperature Scales
- Specific Heat Capacity and Latent Heat
- The Mole and Ideal Gases
- Kinetic Theory of Gases
- Internal Energy
- The First Law of Thermodynamics

13 Thermal Equilibrium

Thermal Energy Transfer

Thermal (heat) energy is transferred from a region of **higher temperature** to a region of **lower temperature**. Transfer continues until the two regions reach the same temperature.

Thermal Equilibrium

Two objects are in **thermal equilibrium** when there is no net transfer of thermal energy between them. This occurs when they are at the **same temperature**.

Zeroth Law of Thermodynamics: If object A is in thermal equilibrium with object C, and object B is also in thermal equilibrium with object C, then A and B are in thermal equilibrium with each other.

14 Temperature Scales

Thermometric Property

A **thermometric property** is a physical property that varies continuously and measurably with temperature. Examples include:

- Resistance of a metal wire (e.g. platinum resistance thermometer)
- e.m.f. of a thermocouple
- Volume of a gas at constant pressure
- Density of a liquid

Thermodynamic Temperature Scale

The **thermodynamic (Kelvin) temperature scale** does not depend on the property of any particular substance. It is an absolute scale with:

- **Absolute zero** (0 K) — the lowest possible temperature
- **Triple point of water** (273.16 K) — fixed reference point

Temperature Conversion

$$T/\mathrm{K} = \theta/^\circ\mathrm{C} + 273.15$$

T = thermodynamic temperature (K)
θ = Celsius temperature (°C)

Note: a temperature *difference* of 1 K equals a difference of 1 °C.

Absolute Zero

At absolute zero (0 K = −273.15 °C):

- Molecules have minimum possible kinetic energy
- It is impossible to reach in practice, only to approach asymptotically
- All ideal gases would have zero volume (zero pressure at constant volume)

15 Specific Heat Capacity and Latent Heat

Specific Heat Capacity

The **specific heat capacity** c of a substance is the energy required to raise the temperature of **unit mass** by **one kelvin** (or one degree Celsius), without change of state.

$$c = \frac{Q}{m\,\Delta T} \qquad \text{units: } \mathrm{J\,kg^{-1}K^{-1}}$$

Specific Heat Capacity

$$Q = mc\Delta T$$

Q = thermal energy transferred (J)
m = mass (kg)
c = specific heat capacity ($\mathrm{J\,kg^{-1}\,K^{-1}}$)
ΔT = temperature change (K or °C)

Specific Latent Heat

The **specific latent heat** L of a substance is the energy required to change the state of **unit mass** at constant temperature.

$$L = \frac{Q}{m} \qquad \text{units: } \mathrm{J\,kg^{-1}}$$

- **Specific latent heat of fusion** L_f: solid → liquid (melting)
- **Specific latent heat of vaporisation** L_v: liquid → gas (boiling)

Note: $L_v > L_f$ for any given substance, since greater work is done separating molecules completely during vaporisation.

Specific Latent Heat

$$Q = mL$$

Q = thermal energy transferred (J)
m = mass (kg)
L = specific latent heat ($\mathrm{J\,kg^{-1}}$)

Common Mistake

During a change of state, temperature remains **constant** even though energy is being supplied. The energy goes into breaking intermolecular bonds, not increasing kinetic energy.

16 The Mole and Ideal Gases

Amount of Substance

The **mole** (mol) is the SI base unit for amount of substance. One mole of any substance contains exactly $N_A = 6.02 \times 10^{23}$ particles (the Avogadro constant).

Equation of State for an Ideal Gas

$$pV = nRT \qquad \text{or} \qquad pV = NkT$$

p = pressure (Pa)
V = volume (m^3)
n = number of moles (mol)
R = molar gas constant = $8.31\ \mathrm{J\,mol^{-1}K^{-1}}$
T = thermodynamic temperature (K)
N = number of molecules
k = Boltzmann constant = $1.38 \times 10^{-23}\ \mathrm{J\,K^{-1}}$

The Boltzmann constant: $k = R/N_A$

Ideal Gas

An **ideal gas** is one that obeys $pV \propto T$ (where T is thermodynamic temperature) under all conditions. Real gases approximate ideal behaviour at low pressures and high temperatures.

Gas Laws — special cases of $pV = nRT$

- **Boyle's Law** (constant T): pV = constant, so $p_1V_1 = p_2V_2$
- **Charles' Law** (constant p): V/T = constant, so $V_1/T_1 = V_2/T_2$
- **Pressure Law** (constant V): p/T = constant, so $p_1/T_1 = p_2/T_2$

Common Mistake

Always use **thermodynamic temperature in kelvin** in gas law calculations — never degrees Celsius.

17 Kinetic Theory of Gases

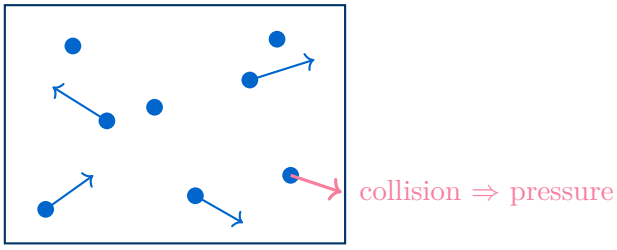
17.1 Assumptions of the Kinetic Model

Basic Assumptions of Kinetic Theory

1. The gas contains a **large number** of molecules moving in **random directions** with a range of speeds.
2. The molecules occupy **negligible volume** compared to the volume of the gas.
3. All collisions are **perfectly elastic** (no kinetic energy lost).
4. **Intermolecular forces are negligible** except during collisions.
5. The duration of collisions is **negligible** compared to the time between collisions.
6. Molecules obey **Newton's laws of motion**.

17.2 Pressure from Kinetic Theory

The pressure exerted by a gas arises from molecules colliding with the container walls. Each collision exerts a force; the average of many such collisions gives a steady pressure.



Random molecular motion causes pressure on walls

Kinetic Theory Equation

$$pV = \frac{1}{3}Nm\langle c^2\rangle$$

p = pressure (Pa)
V = volume (m^3)
N = total number of molecules
m = mass of one molecule (kg)
$\langle c^2\rangle$ = mean square speed ($m^2\,s^{-2}$)

The **root-mean-square speed**: $c_{\text{r.m.s.}} = \sqrt{\langle c^2\rangle}$

Note: $c_{\text{r.m.s.}}$ is not the same as the mean speed $\bar{c}$. Because we square first then average, faster molecules contribute more. In general $c_{\text{r.m.s.}} > \bar{c}$.

Derivation of $pV = \frac{1}{3}Nm\langle c^2\rangle$

Consider one molecule of mass m moving with speed c_x in the x-direction inside a box of side L.
Step 1 — change in momentum at one wall: The molecule hits the right wall and

bounces back elastically:

$$\Delta p = mc_x - (-mc_x) = 2mc_x$$

Step 2 — time between collisions with the same wall: The molecule must travel $2L$ before returning:

$$\Delta t = \frac{2L}{c_x}$$

Step 3 — force from one molecule:

$$F = \frac{\Delta p}{\Delta t} = \frac{2mc_x}{2L/c_x} = \frac{mc_x^2}{L}$$

Step 4 — pressure from N molecules: Summing over all N molecules and dividing by area L^2:

$$p = \frac{Nm\langle c_x^2\rangle}{L^3} = \frac{Nm\langle c_x^2\rangle}{V}$$

Step 5 — extend to 3 dimensions: By symmetry of random motion: $\langle c_x^2\rangle = \langle c_y^2\rangle = \langle c_z^2\rangle = \frac{1}{3}\langle c^2\rangle$

$$\boxed{pV = \tfrac{1}{3}Nm\langle c^2\rangle}$$

17.3 Molecular Kinetic Energy

Derivation of $\langle E_k\rangle = \frac{3}{2}kT$

Start with the two equations for an ideal gas:

$$pV = \tfrac{1}{3}Nm\langle c^2\rangle \qquad \text{and} \qquad pV = NkT$$

Equating the right-hand sides:

$$\tfrac{1}{3}Nm\langle c^2\rangle = NkT$$

Divide both sides by N and multiply by $\frac{3}{2}$:

$$\tfrac{1}{2}m\langle c^2\rangle = \tfrac{3}{2}kT$$

Since $\langle E_k\rangle = \frac{1}{2}m\langle c^2\rangle$:

$$\boxed{\langle E_k\rangle = \tfrac{3}{2}kT}$$

Average Translational Kinetic Energy

$$\langle E_k\rangle = \frac{1}{2}m\langle c^2\rangle = \frac{3}{2}kT$$

The average kinetic energy of a molecule is **directly proportional to thermodynamic temperature**.

Key Deductions

- At absolute zero, molecules have minimum kinetic energy
- Molecules of different gases at the same temperature have the **same average KE**
- Heavier molecules move more **slowly** on average at the same temperature: $c_{\text{r.m.s.}} = \sqrt{3kT/m}$
- $c_{\text{r.m.s.}} \propto \sqrt{T}$ — doubling thermodynamic temperature increases r.m.s. speed by factor $\sqrt{2}$

18 Internal Energy

Internal Energy

The **internal energy** of a system is the sum of the **random kinetic energies** and **potential energies** of all the molecules in the system.

$$U = E_{k,\text{total}} + E_{p,\text{total}}$$

- Internal energy is a **function of state**.
- For an **ideal gas**: $E_p = 0$, so $U = E_{k,\text{total}}$ only.
- A rise in temperature $\Rightarrow$ increase in average KE $\Rightarrow$ increase in U.
- During a change of state: temperature (and KE) constant; E_p increases as bonds break; U increases.

19 The First Law of Thermodynamics

Work Done by/on a Gas

When a gas changes volume at **constant pressure**:

$$W = p\,\Delta V$$

W = work done **by** the gas (J)
p = pressure (Pa)
ΔV = change in volume (m^3)

First Law of Thermodynamics

$$\Delta U = q + W$$

ΔU = increase in internal energy of the system (J)
q = energy supplied **to** the system by heating (J)
W = work done **on** the system (J)

Sign Convention

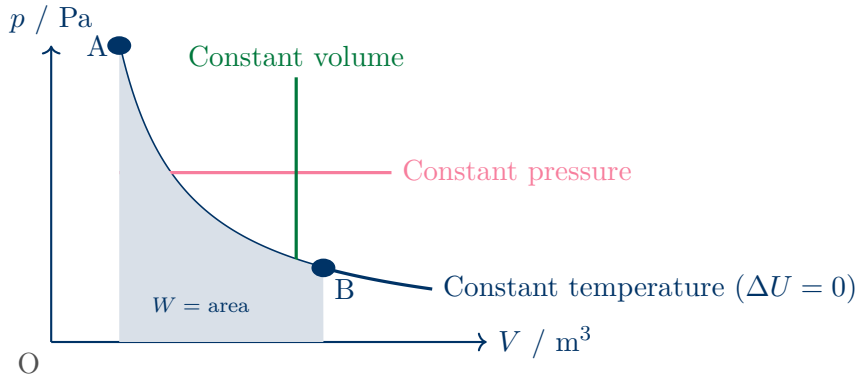
CIE uses $\Delta U = q + W$ where W is work done **on** the system. Some textbooks use $\Delta U = q - W$ where W is work done **by** the system. Always check which convention is being used.

Special Cases of the First Law

Process	Condition	Result
Constant temperature	$\Delta T = 0 \Rightarrow \Delta U = 0$	$q = -W$
No heat transfer	$q = 0$	$\Delta U = W$
Constant volume	$\Delta V = 0 \Rightarrow W = 0$	$\Delta U = q$
Constant pressure	p constant	$\Delta U = q - p\Delta V$

19.1 p–V Diagrams

The **area under a p–V curve** equals the work done by the gas during that process.



20 Formula Summary

Formula	Quantity	Units
$T/\mathrm{K} = \theta/°\mathrm{C} + 273.15$	Temperature conversion	K
$Q = mc\Delta T$	Sensible heat	J
$Q = mL$	Latent heat	J
$pV = nRT$	Ideal gas (moles)	Pa, m^3, K
$pV = NkT$	Ideal gas (molecules)	Pa, m^3, K
$k = R/N_A$	Boltzmann constant	$\mathrm{J\,K^{-1}}$
$pV = \frac{1}{3}Nm\langle c^2\rangle$	Kinetic theory	Pa
$\langle E_k\rangle = \frac{3}{2}kT$	Mean molecular KE	J
$W = p\Delta V$	Work done by gas	J
$\Delta U = q + W$	First law	J

Constants: $R = 8.31\ \mathrm{J\,mol^{-1}K^{-1}}$ $k = 1.38 \times 10^{-23}\ \mathrm{J\,K^{-1}}$ $N_A = 6.02 \times 10^{23}\ \mathrm{mol^{-1}}$

21 Worked Examples

Example 1 — Specific Heat Capacity

Question: A 2.0 kg block of aluminium ($c = 900\ \mathrm{J\,kg^{-1}K^{-1}}$) is heated from 20 °C to 80 °C. Calculate the energy supplied.

Solution

$$Q = mc\Delta T = 2.0 \times 900 \times (80 - 20) = \mathbf{1.08 \times 10^5}\ \mathrm{J}$$

Example 2 — Ideal Gas Law

Question: A fixed mass of ideal gas has pressure 1.2×10^5 Pa and volume $3.0 \times 10^{-3}\ \mathrm{m}^3$ at 27 °C. It is heated at constant pressure until its volume doubles. Find the final temperature.

Solution

$T_1 = 27 + 273.15 = 300.15$ K. At constant pressure, $V \propto T$:

$$T_2 = T_1 \times \frac{V_2}{V_1} = 300.15 \times 2 = \mathbf{600}\ \mathrm{K}\ (\mathbf{327}\ °\mathrm{C})$$

Example 3 — r.m.s. Speed

Question: Calculate the r.m.s. speed of nitrogen molecules ($M = 0.028\ \mathrm{kg\,mol^{-1}}$) at 300 K.

Solution

Mass of one molecule: $m = 0.028/6.02 \times 10^{23} = 4.65 \times 10^{-26}$ kg

$$c_{\text{r.m.s.}} = \sqrt{\frac{3kT}{m}} = \sqrt{\frac{3 \times 1.38 \times 10^{-23} \times 300}{4.65 \times 10^{-26}}} = \sqrt{2.67 \times 10^5} = \mathbf{517}\ \mathrm{m\,s^{-1}}$$

Example 4 — First Law

Question: A gas is compressed. 650 J of work is done on the gas and 200 J of heat flows out. Find the change in internal energy.

Solution

$W = +650$ J (work done *on* gas), $q = -200$ J (heat leaves)

$$\Delta U = q + W = -200 + 650 = +\mathbf{450}\ \mathrm{J}$$

Internal energy **increases** by 450 J.

22 Practice Exam Questions

Section A — Short Answer Questions

Q1. Define *specific latent heat of vaporisation* and explain why it is greater than the specific latent heat of fusion for the same substance.

[3 marks]

Q2. State the basic assumptions of the kinetic theory of gases.

[4 marks]

Q3. Explain what is meant by *internal energy* and state how it differs for an ideal gas compared to a real gas.

[3 marks]

Q4. A gas at pressure 2.0×10^5 Pa and temperature 300 K occupies a volume of 0.40 m^3. Calculate the number of molecules present.

[2 marks]

Q5. Show that the mean kinetic energy of a gas molecule is $\frac{3}{2}kT$ by combining the kinetic theory equation with the ideal gas equation.

[3 marks]

Section B — Longer Structured Questions

Q6. A sample of water of mass 0.50 kg is heated from 20 °C to 100 °C and then completely vaporised.
($c_{\text{water}} = 4200\ \text{J kg}^{-1}\text{K}^{-1}$, $L_v = 2.26 \times 10^6\ \text{J kg}^{-1}$)

(a) Calculate the energy needed to heat the water from 20 °C to 100 °C.

[2 marks]

(b) Calculate the energy needed to vaporise the water at 100 °C.

[2 marks]

(c) Explain in terms of molecular behaviour why energy is needed to vaporise water even though the temperature does not change.

[2 marks]

Q7. A fixed mass of ideal gas undergoes the cycle A → B → C → A on a p–V diagram where A → B is constant temperature expansion, B → C is constant volume pressure decrease, and C → A is constant pressure compression.

(a) State the change in internal energy during A → B and justify your answer.
[2 marks]

(b) Using the first law, find q for A → B given that the work done by the gas is 440 J.
[2 marks]

(c) Describe the energy changes during the constant volume process B → C.
[2 marks]

23 Mark Scheme and Answers

Q1. Specific latent heat of vaporisation is the energy per unit mass required to change a substance from liquid to gas at constant temperature [1]; greater than L_f because molecules must be completely separated, requiring work against intermolecular forces over a much greater distance than in melting [2].

Q2. Large number of molecules moving randomly in all directions with a range of speeds [1]; occupying negligible volume compared to container [1]; collisions perfectly elastic [1]; intermolecular forces negligible except during collisions; collisions of negligible duration; obey Newton's laws [1].

Q3. Internal energy is the sum of random kinetic and potential energies of all molecules [1]; for an ideal gas, $E_p = 0$ so internal energy is kinetic energy only [1]; for a real gas, molecules have potential energy due to intermolecular forces [1].

Q4. $N = pV/kT = (2.0 \times 10^5 \times 0.40)/(1.38 \times 10^{-23} \times 300) = \mathbf{1.93 \times 10^{25}}$ molecules [2].

Q5. $pV = \frac{1}{3}Nm\langle c^2\rangle$ [1]; equate with $pV = NkT$: $\frac{1}{3}m\langle c^2\rangle = kT$ [1]; so $\frac{1}{2}m\langle c^2\rangle = \frac{3}{2}kT$ [1].

Q6(a). $Q = 0.50 \times 4200 \times 80 = \mathbf{1.68 \times 10^5}$ J [2].

Q6(b). $Q = 0.50 \times 2.26 \times 10^6 = \mathbf{1.13 \times 10^6}$ J [2].

Q6(c). KE of molecules unchanged (temperature constant) [1]; energy breaks intermolecular bonds as molecules separate completely, increasing potential energy [1].

Q7(a). $\Delta U = 0$ [1]; temperature is constant and for an ideal gas internal energy depends only on temperature [1].

Q7(b). $\Delta U = 0$, work done on gas $= -440$ J; $q = +440$ J — heat flows into gas [2].

Q7(c). No work done ($\Delta V = 0$) [1]; temperature and KE decrease; heat flows out; internal energy decreases [1].

24 Revision Checklist

	Learning Objective	Confidence (1–3)
☐	Explain thermal equilibrium and direction of heat flow	
☐	Convert between Celsius and Kelvin	
☐	State examples of thermometric properties	
☐	Define and use specific heat capacity: $Q = mc\Delta T$	
☐	Define and use specific latent heat: $Q = mL$	
☐	State the assumptions of kinetic theory	
☐	Use $pV = nRT$ and $pV = NkT$	
☐	Derive and use $pV = \frac{1}{3}Nm\langle c^2\rangle$	
☐	Show that mean KE of a molecule is $\frac{3}{2}kT$	
☐	Define internal energy and relate to temperature	
☐	Apply the first law $\Delta U = q + W$	
☐	Interpret and use p–V diagrams	

Key: 1 = Need more work 2 = Getting there 3 = Confident

Good luck with your revision!

Remember: understanding *why* formulas work is more powerful than memorising them. Practice drawing p–V diagrams and deriving key results from first principles.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 17

Oscillations

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Simple Harmonic Motion
- Displacement, Velocity & Acceleration
- Energy in SHM
- Damped Oscillations
- Forced Oscillations & Resonance

25 Core Concepts and Definitions

Oscillatory Motion — Key Terms

- **Displacement** x: the distance from the equilibrium position, with direction (m).
- **Amplitude** x_0: the maximum displacement from equilibrium (m).
- **Period** T: the time for one complete oscillation (s).
- **Frequency** f: the number of complete oscillations per second (Hz); $f = 1/T$.
- **Angular frequency** ω: $\omega = 2\pi f = 2\pi/T$ (rad s^{-1}).
- **Phase difference** ϕ: the fraction of a cycle by which one oscillation leads or lags another, expressed in radians.

Simple Harmonic Motion (SHM)

An oscillation is **simple harmonic** if the acceleration of the object is:

- **proportional** to its displacement from a fixed equilibrium point, and
- always directed **towards** that equilibrium point (opposite to displacement).

$$a \propto -x$$

26 Equations of Simple Harmonic Motion

Defining Equation of SHM

$$a = -\omega^2 x$$

a = acceleration (m s^{-2})
ω = angular frequency (rad s^{-1})
x = displacement from equilibrium (m)

The negative sign confirms acceleration is always directed **opposite** to displacement.

Displacement; Velocity and Acceleration

$$x = x_0 \sin \omega t \qquad \text{(starting from equilibrium)}$$

$$v = v_0 \cos \omega t \qquad \text{where } v_0 = \omega x_0$$

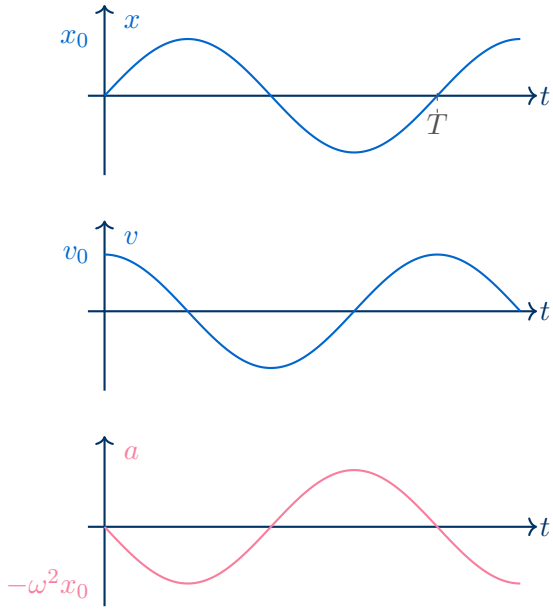
$$v = \pm\, \omega \sqrt{x_0^2 - x^2}$$

x_0 = amplitude (m)
v_0 = maximum speed = ωx_0 (m s^{-1})
t = time (s)

Maxima and Minima

- Acceleration is **maximum** at maximum displacement ($x = \pm x_0$): $|a_{\text{max}}| = \omega^2 x_0$
- Speed is **maximum** at the equilibrium position ($x = 0$): $v_{\text{max}} = \omega x_0$
- Speed is **zero** at the turning points ($x = \pm x_0$).

Graphs of x, v and a against time



Phase Relationships

- v leads x by $\frac{\pi}{2}$ rad (quarter period ahead).
- a leads v by $\frac{\pi}{2}$ rad, so a is **antiphase** (π rad ahead) with x.

Common Mistake

The equation $x = x_0 \sin \omega t$ assumes the object starts at the **equilibrium position** at $t = 0$. If it starts at maximum displacement, use $x = x_0 \cos \omega t$ instead. Always check the initial conditions.

27 Energy in Simple Harmonic Motion

Total Energy of a SHM System

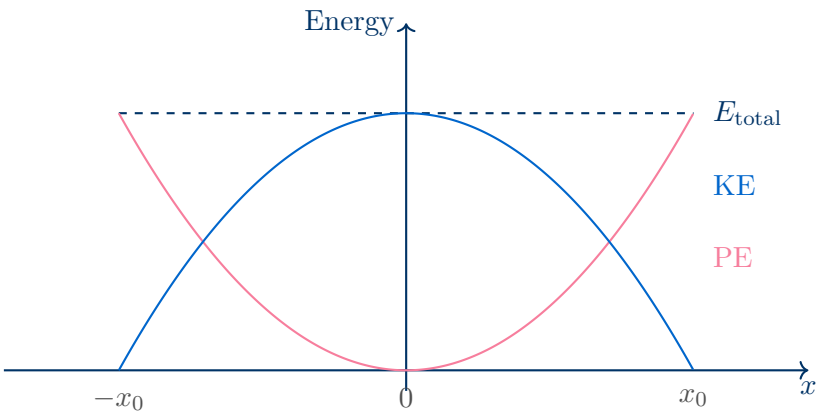
$$E = \tfrac{1}{2} m \omega^2 x_0^2$$

E = total mechanical energy (J)
m = mass of the oscillating object (kg)
ω = angular frequency (rad s^{-1})
x_0 = amplitude (m)

Energy Interchange During SHM

- At the **equilibrium position** ($x = 0$): KE is maximum, PE is zero.
- At the **turning points** ($x = \pm x_0$): KE is zero, PE is maximum.
- The **total energy remains constant** throughout (assuming no damping).
- $\text{KE} = \frac{1}{2}m\omega^2(x_0^2 - x^2)$ $\qquad$ $\text{PE} = \frac{1}{2}m\omega^2 x^2$

Energy–displacement graph



28 Damped and Forced Oscillations

28.1 Damping

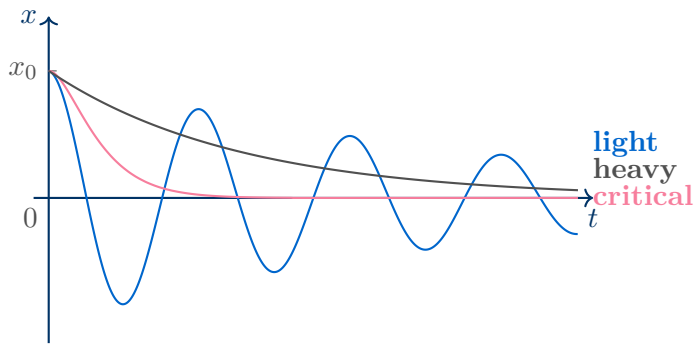
Damping

Damping occurs when a resistive force (e.g., air resistance, viscosity) acts on an oscillating system. Energy is removed from the system, causing the amplitude to **decrease over time**. The frequency is approximately unchanged for light damping.

Types of Damping

- **Light damping**: amplitude decreases gradually over many oscillations; the system oscillates for a long time before coming to rest.
- **Critical damping**: the system returns to equilibrium in the **shortest possible time** without oscillating. Used in car suspension and door closers.
- **Heavy (overdamping)**: the system returns to equilibrium **slowly** without oscillating; slower return than critical damping.

Displacement–time graphs for the three types of damping



28.2 Forced Oscillations and Resonance

Forced Oscillations and Natural Frequency

- Every oscillating system has a **natural frequency** f_0 at which it oscillates freely when displaced and released.
- A **forced oscillation** occurs when a periodic **driving force** is applied to the system at a **driving frequency** f.
- The system oscillates at the **driving frequency**, not necessarily at its natural frequency.

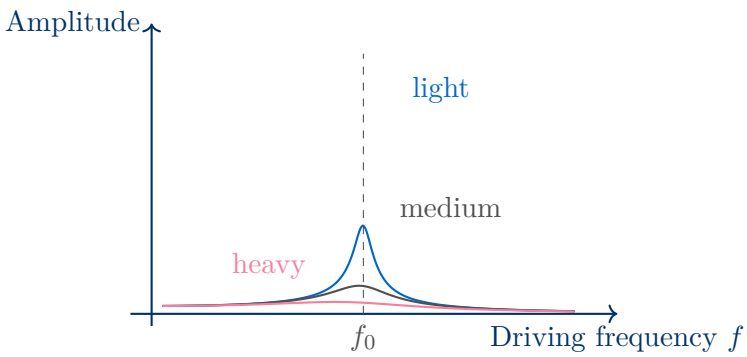
Resonance

Resonance occurs when the driving frequency equals the natural frequency of the system ($f = f_0$). At resonance:

- The amplitude of oscillation is a **maximum**.
- Energy transfer from the driver to the system is most efficient.

- The degree of damping determines how sharp the resonance peak is and the maximum amplitude reached.

Amplitude–frequency graph (resonance curves)



Effect of Damping on Resonance

- More damping ⇒ lower and broader resonance peak.
- More damping ⇒ peak shifts **below** f_0 (towards lower frequencies).
- Less damping ⇒ sharper, taller peak with maximum amplitude closer to f_0.
- With no damping the peak would be infinite at exactly f_0.

Resonance in Real Life

Resonance can be **useful** (e.g. MRI scanners, musical instruments, microwave ovens) or **destructive** (e.g. bridges vibrating in wind, buildings in earthquakes). Engineers use damping to control unwanted resonance.

29 Formula Summary Sheet

Formula	Quantity	Units
$a = -\omega^2 x$	SHM defining equation	m s^{-2}
$\omega = 2\pi f = \dfrac{2\pi}{T}$	Angular frequency	rad s^{-1}
$x = x_0 \sin \omega t$	Displacement (from equilibrium at $t = 0$)	m
$v = v_0 \cos \omega t$	Velocity	m s^{-1}
$v = \pm\omega\sqrt{x_0^2 - x^2}$	Speed at displacement x	m s^{-1}
$v_0 = \omega x_0$	Maximum speed	m s^{-1}
$a_{\text{max}} = \omega^2 x_0$	Maximum acceleration	m s^{-2}
$E = \frac{1}{2}m\omega^2 x_0^2$	Total energy of SHM system	J
$\text{KE} = \frac{1}{2}m\omega^2(x_0^2 - x^2)$	Kinetic energy at displacement x	J
$\text{PE} = \frac{1}{2}m\omega^2 x^2$	Potential energy at displacement x	J

Key relationships: $T = 1/f$, $\omega = 2\pi f$, $v_{\text{max}} = \omega x_0$, $a_{\text{max}} = \omega^2 x_0$
Phase: v leads x by $\pi/2$; a is antiphase with x (leads by π)

30 Worked Examples

Example 1 — Finding Angular Frequency and Max Speed

Question: A mass oscillates with SHM, amplitude 4.0 cm and period 0.80 s. Calculate (a) the angular frequency and (b) the maximum speed.

Solution

(a) $\omega = \dfrac{2\pi}{T} = \dfrac{2\pi}{0.80} = \mathbf{7.85}$ rad s^{-1}

(b) $v_{\text{max}} = \omega x_0 = 7.85 \times 0.040 = \mathbf{0.31}$ m s^{-1}

Example 2 — Speed at a Given Displacement

Question: The same mass ($\omega = 7.85$ rad s^{-1}, $x_0 = 4.0$ cm) has displacement $x = 2.5$ cm. Find its speed.

Solution

$$v = \omega\sqrt{x_0^2 - x^2} = 7.85 \times \sqrt{(0.040)^2 - (0.025)^2}$$

$$v = 7.85 \times \sqrt{1.60 \times 10^{-3} - 6.25 \times 10^{-4}} = 7.85 \times \sqrt{9.75 \times 10^{-4}}$$

$$v = 7.85 \times 0.0312 = \mathbf{0.245}\ \text{m s}^{-\mathbf{1}}$$

Example 3 — Total Energy of SHM System

Question: A 0.20 kg mass oscillates with $\omega = 7.85$ rad s^{-1} and amplitude 4.0 cm. Calculate the total energy.

Solution

$$E = \tfrac{1}{2}m\omega^2 x_0^2 = \tfrac{1}{2} \times 0.20 \times (7.85)^2 \times (0.040)^2$$

$$E = 0.10 \times 61.6 \times 1.60 \times 10^{-3} = \mathbf{9.9 \times 10^{-3}}\ \text{J}$$

31 Practice Exam Questions

Section A — Short Answer Questions

Q1. State the two conditions that define simple harmonic motion.

[2 marks]

Q2. Define the terms *amplitude*, *period* and *angular frequency* for an oscillating system.

[3 marks]

Q3. An object undergoes SHM with frequency 2.5 Hz and amplitude 6.0 cm.

(a) Calculate the angular frequency. *[1 mark]*

(b) Calculate the maximum acceleration. *[2 marks]*

(c) Calculate the speed when $x = 4.0$ cm. *[2 marks]*

Q4. Sketch displacement–time graphs for *light*, *critical* and *heavy* damping on the same axes, starting from the same initial displacement. Label each curve.

[3 marks]

Q5. Explain what is meant by *resonance* and state the condition under which it occurs.

[2 marks]

Section B — Longer Structured Questions

Q6. A 0.15 kg mass is attached to a spring and oscillates vertically with SHM. Its displacement is given by $x = 0.050\sin(12t)$, where x is in metres and t in seconds.

(a) Write down the amplitude and angular frequency of the motion.

[2 marks]

(b) Show that the maximum speed is 0.60 m s^{-1}.

[2 marks]

(c) Calculate the total energy of the oscillation.

[2 marks]

(d) Sketch graphs on the same axes showing how the kinetic energy and potential energy vary with displacement x. Label your axes clearly.

[3 marks]

Q7. A child on a swing is pushed periodically by a parent.

(a) Explain why the amplitude of the swing increases when the pushing frequency equals the natural frequency of the swing.

[2 marks]

(b) The parent now pushes at a frequency higher than the natural frequency. Describe and explain what happens to the amplitude.

[2 marks]

(c) Air resistance acts on the swing. Describe how this affects the resonance curve compared to an undamped system.

[2 marks]

32 Mark Scheme and Answers

Q1. Acceleration is proportional to displacement from a fixed (equilibrium) point [1]; acceleration is always directed towards that point / opposite to displacement [1].

Q2. Amplitude: maximum displacement from equilibrium [1]. Period: time for one complete oscillation [1]. Angular frequency: $\omega = 2\pi f = 2\pi/T$ (rad s^{-1}) [1].

Q3(a). $\omega = 2\pi f = 2\pi \times 2.5 = \mathbf{15.7}$ rad s^{-1} [1].

Q3(b). $a_{\max} = \omega^2 x_0 = (15.7)^2 \times 0.060$ [1] $= \mathbf{14.8}$ m s^{-2} [1].

Q3(c). $v = \omega\sqrt{x_0^2 - x^2} = 15.7 \times \sqrt{(0.060)^2 - (0.040)^2}$ [1] $= 15.7 \times 0.0447 = \mathbf{0.70}$ m s^{-1} [1].

Q4. All three start from same x_0 [1]; light damping: decaying sinusoid, multiple oscillations; critical: returns to zero smoothly in shortest time without oscillating; heavy: slower return to zero, no oscillation — all three correctly labelled [2].

Q5. Resonance: when the driving frequency equals the natural frequency of the system [1]; the amplitude of oscillation reaches a maximum [1].

Q6(a). Amplitude $x_0 = 0.050$ m [1]; angular frequency $\omega = 12$ rad s^{-1} [1].

Q6(b). $v_{\text{max}} = \omega x_0 = 12 \times 0.050 = 0.60$ m s^{-1} [2] (must show substitution).

Q6(c). $E = \frac{1}{2}m\omega^2 x_0^2 = \frac{1}{2} \times 0.15 \times 144 \times 2.5 \times 10^{-3}$ [1] $= \mathbf{2.7 \times 10^{-2}}$ J [1].

Q6(d). PE: upward parabola, zero at $x = 0$, maximum E at $x = \pm x_0$ [1]; KE: inverted parabola, maximum E at $x = 0$, zero at $x = \pm x_0$ [1]; axes correctly labelled with E, $-x_0$, 0, x_0 [1].

Q7(a). Energy is transferred most efficiently from driver to system when $f_{\text{drive}} = f_0$ [1]; each push is in phase with the motion so energy is added each cycle, increasing amplitude [1].

Q7(b). Amplitude decreases [1]; driving frequency is not matched to natural frequency so energy transfer is less efficient / pushes are out of phase with motion [1].

Q7(c). The resonance peak is lower (smaller maximum amplitude) [1]; the peak is broader and shifts slightly to a frequency below f_0 [1].

33 Revision Checklist

Use this checklist to track your understanding. Tick each box when you are confident:

	Learning Objective	Confidence (1–3)
☐	Define displacement, amplitude, period, frequency and angular frequency	
☐	State and apply the two conditions for SHM	
☐	Use $a = -\omega^2 x$ to identify and analyse SHM	
☐	Use $x = x_0 \sin \omega t$ and $v = v_0 \cos \omega t$	
☐	Use $v = \pm\omega\sqrt{x_0^2 - x^2}$ to find speed at any displacement	
☐	Sketch and interpret graphs of x, v and a against t	
☐	Describe the phase relationships between x, v and a	
☐	Describe the interchange between KE and PE during SHM	
☐	Use $E = \frac{1}{2}m\omega^2 x_0^2$ for total energy	
☐	Sketch and interpret KE and PE against displacement graphs	
☐	Explain and distinguish light, critical and heavy damping	
☐	Sketch displacement–time graphs for the three types of damping	
☐	Explain resonance and the condition for it to occur	
☐	Describe the effect of damping on the resonance curve	

Key: 1 = Need more work 2 = Getting there 3 = Confident

Good luck with your revision!

Remember: in SHM, acceleration and displacement are always linked by $a = -\omega^2 x$. If you can start from this equation and derive everything else, you truly understand the topic.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 18

Electric Fields

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Electric Fields and Field Lines
- Uniform Electric Fields
- Coulomb's Law
- Electric Field of a Point Charge
- Electric Potential

34 Core Concepts and Definitions

Electric Field

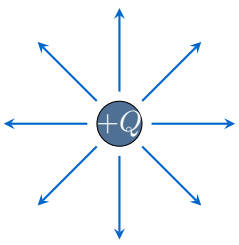
An **electric field** is a region of space in which a charged object experiences a force.

- Electric field is defined as the **force per unit positive charge** acting on a small stationary test charge placed at that point.
- It is a **vector** quantity, directed along the force on a positive test charge.
- Units: N $C^{-1} \equiv$ V m^{-1}.

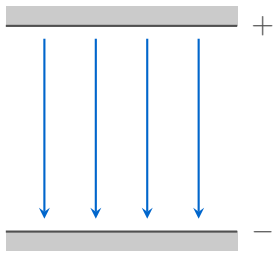
$$E = \frac{F}{q}$$

Radial vs Uniform Fields

- **Radial field** (around a point charge or sphere): field lines point radially inward (negative charge) or outward (positive charge); E decreases with distance.
- **Uniform field** (between parallel plates): field lines are parallel and equally spaced; E is constant throughout.



Radial Field (+)



Uniform Field

35 Uniform Electric Fields

Field Strength Between Parallel Plates

$$E = \frac{\Delta V}{\Delta d}$$

E = electric field strength (V m^{-1})
ΔV = potential difference between the plates (V)
Δd = separation of the plates (m)

Motion of Charged Particles in a Uniform Field

- A charge q in a uniform field E experiences a constant force $F = qE$.
- The motion is analogous to projectile motion in a gravitational field:
  - Along the field: **uniform acceleration** $a = qE/m$.

  - Perpendicular to the field: **constant velocity** (if no other forces).
- The path of the charge is **parabolic**.

Common Mistake

$E = \Delta V/\Delta d$ applies **only** to uniform fields (parallel plates). Do not apply it to the field around a point charge — use $E = Q/(4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2)$ instead.

36 Coulomb's Law

Coulomb's Law

$$F = \frac{Q_1 Q_2}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2}$$

F	= electrostatic force between the charges (N)
Q_1, Q_2	= the two point charges (C)
r	= separation between the charges (m)
ε_0	= permittivity of free space = 8.85×10^{-12} F m^{-1}

Key Points

- Like charges **repel**; unlike charges **attract**.
- The force obeys an **inverse-square law**: double the distance, quarter the force.
- Applies strictly to **point charges**, and to uniform spheres (treat as point charge at centre).
- Compare with gravity: same inverse-square form but gravity is **always attractive**.

Comparison: Coulomb's Law vs Newton's Law of Gravitation

Coulomb's Law	**Newton's Law**
$F = \dfrac{Q_1 Q_2}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2}$	$F = \dfrac{G m_1 m_2}{r^2}$
Can be attractive or repulsive	Always attractive
Acts between charges	Acts between masses
Much stronger force	Much weaker force

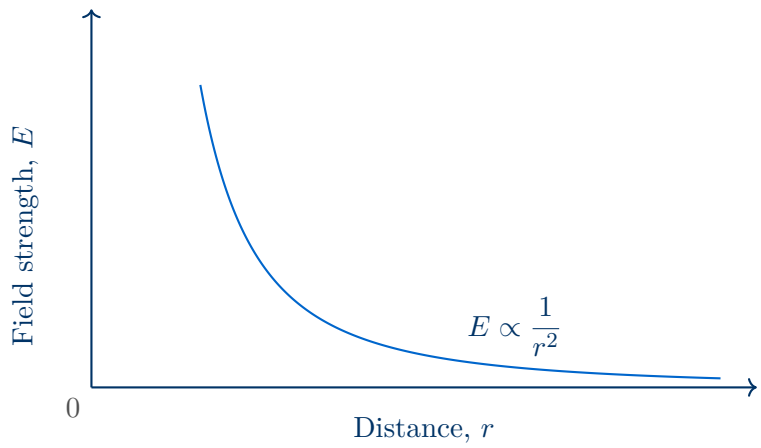
37 Electric Field of a Point Charge

Electric Field Strength due to a Point Charge

$$E = \frac{Q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2}$$

E = electric field strength at distance r (N C^{-1})
Q = point charge creating the field (C)
r = distance from the centre of Q (m)
ε_0 = 8.85×10^{-12} F m^{-1}

Variation of E with distance r



Comparing E and g fields

- Both follow an inverse-square law with distance.
- $E = Q/(4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2)$ parallels $g = GM/r^2$.
- $F = qE$ parallels $F = mg$.
- Unlike gravitational fields, electric fields can point inward or outward depending on the sign of Q.

38 Electric Potential

Definition of Electric Potential V

The **electric potential** at a point is the work done per unit positive charge in bringing a small test charge from infinity to that point.

$$V = \frac{W}{q} \qquad \text{units: J C}^{-1} \equiv \text{V}$$

- $V = 0$ at infinity (by convention).
- Around a positive charge: $V > 0$ (work must be done *against* repulsion).

- Around a negative charge: $V < 0$ (work is done *by* the field as the test charge moves in).

Electric Potential due to a Point Charge

$$V = \frac{Q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r}$$

V = electric potential at distance r (V)
Q = point charge (C)
r = distance from the charge (m)

38.1 Relationship Between E and V

Field Strength from Potential Gradient

$$E = -\frac{\Delta V}{\Delta r}$$

The electric field strength equals the **negative gradient** of the potential–distance graph. The area under an E–r graph gives the change in potential ΔV.

38.2 Electric Potential Energy

Potential Energy of Two Point Charges

$$E_P = \frac{Qq}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r}$$

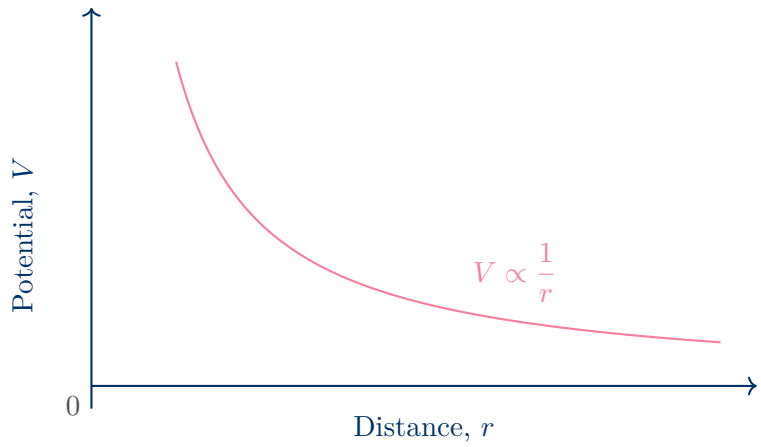
E_P = electric potential energy (J)
Q, q = the two point charges (C)
r = separation (m)

Note: $E_P = qV$, where V is the potential due to charge Q at the location of q.

Signs of Potential Energy

- Like charges ($Qq > 0$): $E_P > 0$ — energy must be supplied to bring them together.
- Unlike charges ($Qq < 0$): $E_P < 0$ — energy is released as they come together.
- $E_P = 0$ at infinite separation.

Graphs of V and E against r for a positive point charge



Common Mistake

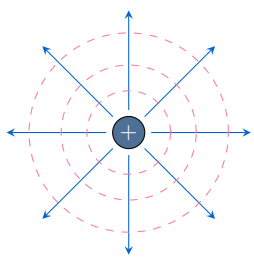
Note the difference in distance dependence: $E \propto 1/r^2$ but $V \propto 1/r$. Students often mix these up. Remember: potential falls off more *slowly* than field strength with distance.

39 Equipotential Surfaces

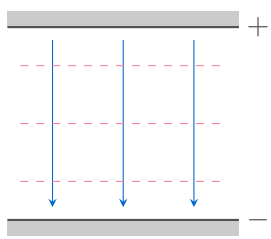
Equipotentials

An **equipotential surface** is a surface on which the electric potential is the same at every point.

- No work is done moving a charge *along* an equipotential.
- Equipotentials are always **perpendicular** to field lines.
- Around a point charge: equipotentials are concentric spheres.
- Between parallel plates: equipotentials are parallel planes equally spaced (for uniform field).



Point charge



Parallel plates

40 Formula Summary Sheet

Formula	Quantity	Units
$E = \dfrac{F}{q}$	Electric field strength (definition)	N C^{-1}
$F = qE$	Force on a charge in a field	N
$E = \dfrac{\Delta V}{\Delta d}$	Field between parallel plates (uniform)	V m^{-1}
$F = \dfrac{Q_1 Q_2}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2}$	Coulomb's Law	N
$E = \dfrac{Q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2}$	Field due to a point charge	N C^{-1}
$V = \dfrac{Q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r}$	Potential due to a point charge	V
$E = -\dfrac{\Delta V}{\Delta r}$	Field from potential gradient	V m^{-1}
$E_P = \dfrac{Qq}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r}$	Electric potential energy	J
$E_P = qV$	Potential energy of charge in field	J

Constants: $\varepsilon_0 = 8.85\times10^{-12}$ F m^{-1}, $\dfrac{1}{4\pi\varepsilon_0} = 8.99\times10^{9}$ N m^{2}C^{-2}, $e = 1.60\times10^{-19}$ C

Note: $E \propto 1/r^2$ (inverse-square) but $V \propto 1/r$ (inverse).

41 Worked Examples

Example 1 — Force Between Two Charges

Question: Calculate the electrostatic force between two charges of $+3.0\ \mu$C and $-5.0\ \mu$C separated by 0.12 m.

Solution

$$F = \frac{Q_1 Q_2}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2} = \frac{3.0\times10^{-6}\times5.0\times10^{-6}}{4\pi\times8.85\times10^{-12}\times(0.12)^2}$$

$$F = \frac{1.5\times10^{-11}}{1.61\times10^{-12}} = \mathbf{9.3}\ \text{N}$$

The force is **attractive** (unlike charges).

Example 2 — Field Strength and Potential at a Distance

Question: A point charge $Q = +4.0\ \mu$C. Calculate (a) the electric field strength and (b) the electric potential at a distance of 0.30 m.

Solution

(a) $$E = \frac{Q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2} = \frac{4.0 \times 10^{-6}}{4\pi \times 8.85 \times 10^{-12} \times (0.30)^2}$$

$$E = \frac{4.0 \times 10^{-6}}{1.005 \times 10^{-10}} \times (0.09)^{-1}$$

$$E = \frac{4.0 \times 10^{-6}}{1.005 \times 10^{-10}} = \mathbf{4.0 \times 10^5}\ \text{N C}^{-1}$$

(b) $$V = \frac{Q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r} = \frac{4.0 \times 10^{-6}}{4\pi \times 8.85 \times 10^{-12} \times 0.30} = \mathbf{1.2 \times 10^5}\ \text{V}$$

Example 3 — Uniform Field Between Plates

Question: Two parallel plates are separated by 4.0 mm with a potential difference of 240 V. Calculate (a) the field strength and (b) the force on an electron between the plates.

Solution

(a) $$E = \frac{\Delta V}{\Delta d} = \frac{240}{4.0 \times 10^{-3}} = \mathbf{6.0 \times 10^4}\ \text{V m}^{-1}$$

(b) $$F = qE = 1.6 \times 10^{-19} \times 6.0 \times 10^4 = \mathbf{9.6 \times 10^{-15}}\ \text{N}$$

42 Practice Exam Questions

Section A — Short Answer Questions

Q1. Define electric field strength and state its SI units.

[2 marks]

Q2. State Coulomb's Law and identify one similarity and one difference compared with Newton's Law of Gravitation.

[3 marks]

Q3. Define electric potential at a point. Explain why the potential around an isolated positive charge is positive, but around an isolated negative charge is negative.

[3 marks]

Q4. Two parallel plates are 6.0 mm apart. The electric field strength between them is 5.0×10^4 V m^{-1}. Calculate the potential difference between the plates.

[2 marks]

Q5. A point charge produces an electric field of 3.6×10^5 N C^{-1} at a distance of 0.10 m. Calculate the magnitude of the charge.

[3 marks]

Section B — Longer Structured Questions

Q6. Two point charges $Q_1 = +6.0\ \mu$C and $Q_2 = +6.0\ \mu$C are placed 0.20 m apart.

(a) Calculate the force between the two charges.

[2 marks]

(b) Calculate the electric field strength at the midpoint between the two charges. Explain your reasoning.

[3 marks]

(c) Calculate the electric potential at the midpoint between the two charges.

[3 marks]

Q7. An electron (mass 9.11×10^{-31} kg, charge -1.6×10^{-19} C) enters horizontally between two parallel plates. The plates are 30 mm apart and have a potential difference of 150 V. The electron enters midway between the plates with horizontal speed 4.0×10^{7} m s^{-1}.

(a) Calculate the electric field strength between the plates.

[1 mark]

(b) Calculate the vertical acceleration of the electron.

[2 marks]

(c) The plates are 60 mm long. Calculate the vertical deflection of the electron as it exits the plates.

[3 marks]

(d) State and explain whether the electron hits one of the plates before exiting.

[2 marks]

43 Mark Scheme and Answers

Q1. Electric field strength is the force per unit positive charge acting on a small stationary test charge placed at that point [1]; units: N C^{-1} or V m^{-1} [1].

Q2. The force between two point charges is proportional to the product of the charges and inversely proportional to the square of their separation [1]. Similarity: both follow an inverse-square law [1]. Difference: gravity is always attractive; electrostatic force can be attractive or repulsive [1].

Q3. Electric potential at a point is the work done per unit positive charge in bringing a small test charge from infinity to that point [1]. Around a positive charge: the test charge is repelled, so work must be done *on* it to bring it in from infinity — the potential is positive [1]. Around a negative charge: the test charge is attracted, so work is done *by* the field — the potential is negative [1].

Q4. $\Delta V = E \times \Delta d = 5.0 \times 10^4 \times 6.0 \times 10^{-3} = \mathbf{300}$ V [2].

Q5. $E = Q/(4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2)$ [1]; $Q = E \times 4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2 = 3.6 \times 10^5 \times 4\pi \times 8.85 \times 10^{-12} \times (0.10)^2$ [1] $= \mathbf{4.0 \times 10^{-7}}$ C [1].

Q6(a). $F = \dfrac{Q_1 Q_2}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2} = \dfrac{(6.0 \times 10^{-6})^2}{4\pi \times 8.85 \times 10^{-12} \times (0.20)^2}$ [1] $= \mathbf{8.1}$ N [1].

Q6(b). By symmetry, the two equal charges produce equal and opposite field contributions at the midpoint [1]; the fields cancel, so $E = \mathbf{0}$ at the midpoint [2].

Q6(c). $V_1 = V_2 = \dfrac{Q}{4\pi\varepsilon_0 r} = \dfrac{6.0 \times 10^{-6}}{4\pi \times 8.85 \times 10^{-12} \times 0.10}$ [1] $= 5.4 \times 10^5$ V; total $V = V_1 + V_2 = \mathbf{1.08 \times 10^6}$ V [2].

Q7(a). $E = \Delta V/\Delta d = 150/(30 \times 10^{-3}) = \mathbf{5.0 \times 10^3}$ V m^{-1} [1].

Q7(b). $F = qE = 1.6 \times 10^{-19} \times 5.0 \times 10^3 = 8.0 \times 10^{-16}$ N [1]; $a = F/m = 8.0 \times 10^{-16}/(9.11 \times 10^{-31}) = \mathbf{8.8 \times 10^{14}}$ m s^{-2} [1].

Q7(c). Time in field: $t = L/v = 0.060/(4.0 \times 10^7) = 1.5 \times 10^{-9}$ s [1]; vertical deflection: $y = \frac{1}{2}at^2 = \frac{1}{2} \times 8.8 \times 10^{14} \times (1.5 \times 10^{-9})^2$ [1] $= \mathbf{9.9 \times 10^{-4}}$ m $\approx \mathbf{1.0}$ mm [1].

Q7(d). The electron enters midway so has 15 mm to the nearest plate [1]; deflection of ≈ 1 mm $\ll 15$ mm, so the electron **does not** hit a plate [1].

44 Revision Checklist

Use this checklist to track your understanding. Tick each box when you are confident:

	Learning Objective	Confidence (1–3)
☐	Define electric field strength as force per unit positive charge; use $E = F/q$	
☐	Represent electric fields using field lines for point charges and parallel plates	
☐	Use $E = \Delta V/\Delta d$ for a uniform field between parallel plates	
☐	Describe the parabolic motion of a charge in a uniform electric field	
☐	State and apply Coulomb's Law $F = Q_1Q_2/(4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2)$	
☐	Use $E = Q/(4\pi\varepsilon_0 r^2)$ for the field due to a point charge	
☐	Define electric potential; explain why sign depends on sign of source charge	
☐	Use $V = Q/(4\pi\varepsilon_0 r)$ for potential due to a point charge	
☐	Apply $E = -\Delta V/\Delta r$ to relate field strength and potential gradient	
☐	Use $E_P = Qq/(4\pi\varepsilon_0 r)$ for potential energy of two charges	
☐	Sketch and interpret equipotential diagrams for point charges and parallel plates	
☐	Compare electric and gravitational fields (similarities and differences)	

Key: 1 = Need more work 2 = Getting there 3 = Confident

Good luck with your revision!

The key to electric fields is seeing the deep parallel with gravitational fields: same inverse-square laws, same potential formalism — but with charge replacing mass, and the crucial difference that charge can be positive or negative.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 19

Capacitance

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Capacitors and Capacitance
- Capacitors in Series and Parallel
- Energy Stored in a Capacitor
- Capacitor Discharge
- The Time Constant

45 Core Concepts and Definitions

Capacitance

The **capacitance** of a conductor is the charge stored per unit potential difference across it.

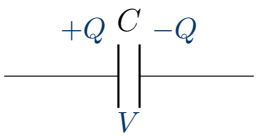
$$C = \frac{Q}{V} \qquad \text{units: F (farads)} \equiv \text{C V}^{-1}$$

- 1 F is a very large unit; practical capacitors are typically μF, nF or pF.
- Capacitance depends on the **geometry** of the conductor and the medium between the plates, not on Q or V individually.
- For an **isolated spherical conductor** of radius R: $C = 4\pi\varepsilon_0 R$.

The Parallel Plate Capacitor

Two conducting plates of area A separated by distance d:

- Charging the capacitor stores charge $+Q$ on one plate and $-Q$ on the other.
- The electric field between the plates is uniform: $E = V/d$.
- Capacitance increases with larger plate area A and smaller separation d.



46 Capacitors in Series and Parallel

Capacitors in Parallel

$$C_{\text{total}} = C_1 + C_2 + C_3 + \cdots$$

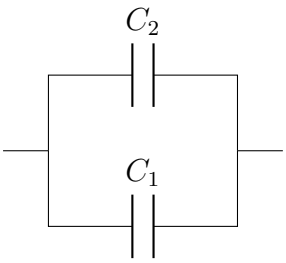
Each capacitor has the **same voltage**; charges add: $Q_{\text{total}} = Q_1 + Q_2 + \cdots$

Capacitors in Series

$$\frac{1}{C_{\text{total}}} = \frac{1}{C_1} + \frac{1}{C_2} + \frac{1}{C_3} + \cdots$$

Each capacitor has the **same charge**; voltages add: $V_{\text{total}} = V_1 + V_2 + \cdots$

Circuit diagrams



Parallel: $C_T = C_1 + C_2$

Series: $\frac{1}{C_T} = \frac{1}{C_1} + \frac{1}{C_2}$

Derivation of Series Formula

For capacitors in series, each carries the same charge Q. The total voltage is:

$$V_{\text{total}} = V_1 + V_2 = \frac{Q}{C_1} + \frac{Q}{C_2} = Q\left(\frac{1}{C_1} + \frac{1}{C_2}\right)$$

Since $C_{\text{total}} = Q/V_{\text{total}}$, dividing through by Q gives $\dfrac{1}{C_{\text{total}}} = \dfrac{1}{C_1} + \dfrac{1}{C_2}$.

Common Mistake

Capacitors in series combine like **resistors in parallel** (reciprocal rule), and capacitors in parallel combine like **resistors in series** (direct sum). This is the opposite to resistors — don't mix them up.

47 Energy Stored in a Capacitor

Energy Stored

$$W = \tfrac{1}{2}QV = \tfrac{1}{2}CV^2 = \frac{Q^2}{2C}$$

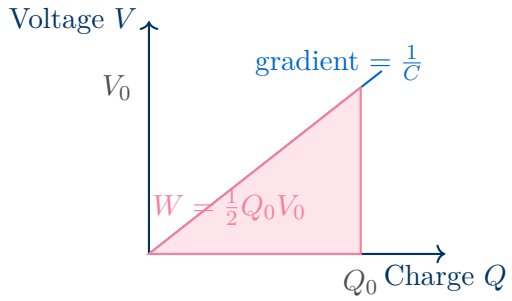
W = energy stored (J)
Q = charge stored (C)
V = potential difference across capacitor (V)
C = capacitance (F)

Energy from the V–Q Graph

The energy stored equals the **area under the V–Q graph** (a straight line through the origin with gradient $1/C$):

$$W = \text{area of triangle} = \tfrac{1}{2} \times Q \times V = \tfrac{1}{2}QV$$

V–Q graph for a capacitor



48 Discharging a Capacitor

Capacitor Discharge Through a Resistor

When a charged capacitor discharges through a resistor R, the charge, voltage and current all decay **exponentially** with time:

$$Q = Q_0\, e^{-t/RC} \qquad V = V_0\, e^{-t/RC} \qquad I = I_0\, e^{-t/RC}$$

where $I_0 = V_0/R = Q_0/RC$ is the initial current.

Time Constant

$$\tau = RC$$

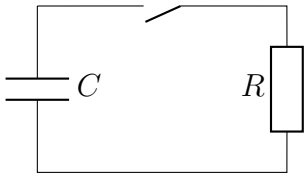
τ = time constant (s)
R = resistance of discharge path (Ω)
C = capacitance (F)

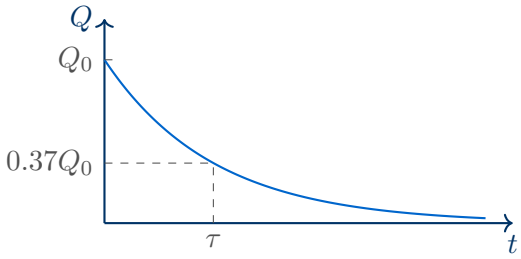
After one time constant ($t = \tau$), the charge/voltage/current has fallen to $e^{-1} \approx$ **37**% of its initial value.

Key Values During Discharge

- $t = \tau$: $Q = 0.37\, Q_0$ (37%)
- $t = 2\tau$: $Q = 0.135\, Q_0$ (13.5%)
- $t = 5\tau$: $Q \approx 0.007\, Q_0$ — capacitor considered fully discharged.
- A larger τ means slower discharge; a smaller τ means faster discharge.

Discharge circuit and Q–t graph





Analysing Discharge Graphs

- A **linear** $\ln Q$ vs t graph confirms exponential decay; gradient $= -1/RC$.
- The time constant τ can be read directly as the time for Q to fall to $0.37\,Q_0$.
- Doubling R or C doubles τ and halves the rate of discharge.

Linearising the discharge: $\ln Q$ against t

Taking logarithms of $Q = Q_0\,e^{-t/RC}$:

$$\ln Q = \ln Q_0 - \frac{1}{RC}\,t$$

This is of the form $y = mx + c$, so a graph of $\ln Q$ against t gives:

- gradient $= -\dfrac{1}{RC} = -\dfrac{1}{\tau}$
- y-intercept $= \ln Q_0$

49 Formula Summary Sheet

Formula	Quantity	Units
$C = Q/V$	Capacitance (definition)	F
$C_T = C_1 + C_2 + \cdots$	Capacitors in parallel	F
$\frac{1}{C_T} = \frac{1}{C_1} + \frac{1}{C_2} + \cdots$	Capacitors in series	F
$W = \frac{1}{2}QV = \frac{1}{2}CV^2 = \frac{Q^2}{2C}$	Energy stored	J
$\tau = RC$	Time constant	s
$Q = Q_0\, e^{-t/RC}$	Charge during discharge	C
$V = V_0\, e^{-t/RC}$	Voltage during discharge	V
$I = I_0\, e^{-t/RC}$	Current during discharge	A
$\ln Q = \ln Q_0 - \frac{t}{RC}$	Linearised discharge	—

Constants and values: $e^{-1} \approx 0.368$; after 1τ: 37% remains; after 5τ: $< 1\%$ remains

Units check: $[\tau] = [\Omega][\text{F}] = [\text{V A}^{-1}][\text{C V}^{-1}] = [\text{C A}^{-1}] = \text{s}$

50 Worked Examples

Example 1 — Capacitors in Series and Parallel

Question: Three capacitors of 2.0 μF, 3.0 μF and 6.0 μF are connected (a) in parallel and (b) in series. Find the total capacitance in each case.

Solution

(a) Parallel:

$$C_T = 2.0 + 3.0 + 6.0 = \mathbf{11.0}\ \mu\text{F}$$

(b) Series:

$$\frac{1}{C_T} = \frac{1}{2.0} + \frac{1}{3.0} + \frac{1}{6.0} = \frac{3+2+1}{6.0} = \frac{6}{6.0} = 1.0\ \mu\text{F}^{-1}$$

$$C_T = \mathbf{1.0}\ \mu\text{F}$$

Example 2 — Energy Stored

Question: A 470 μF capacitor is charged to 12 V. Calculate (a) the charge stored and (b) the energy stored.

Solution

(a) $Q = CV = 470 \times 10^{-6} \times 12 = \mathbf{5.64 \times 10^{-3}}$ C
(b) $W = \frac{1}{2}CV^2 = \frac{1}{2} \times 470 \times 10^{-6} \times 12^2 = \mathbf{3.38 \times 10^{-2}}$ J

Example 3 — Capacitor Discharge

Question: A 220 μF capacitor charged to 9.0 V discharges through a 47 kΩ resistor. Calculate (a) the time constant and (b) the voltage after 5.0 s.

Solution

(a) $\tau = RC = 47 \times 10^3 \times 220 \times 10^{-6} = \mathbf{10.3}$ s
(b) $V = V_0\, e^{-t/RC} = 9.0 \times e^{-5.0/10.3} = 9.0 \times e^{-0.485} = 9.0 \times 0.616 = \mathbf{5.5}$ V

51 Practice Exam Questions

Section A — Short Answer Questions

Q1. Define capacitance and state its SI unit.

[2 marks]

Q2. A capacitor stores 360 μC of charge when connected to a 12 V supply. Calculate its capacitance.

[2 marks]

Q3. Two capacitors of 4.0 μF and 12 μF are connected in series across a 6.0 V supply.

(a) Calculate the total capacitance. *[2 marks]*

(b) Calculate the total charge stored. *[1 mark]*

(c) Calculate the voltage across the 4.0 μF capacitor. *[2 marks]*

Q4. Explain, with reference to the V–Q graph, why the energy stored in a capacitor is $W = \frac{1}{2}QV$ and not $W = QV$.

[2 marks]

Q5. Define the time constant for a capacitor–resistor discharge circuit and state what fraction of the initial charge remains after two time constants.

[3 marks]

Section B — Longer Structured Questions

Q6. A 100 μF capacitor is charged to 20 V and then discharged through a 25 kΩ resistor.

(a) Calculate the initial charge stored on the capacitor.

[1 mark]

(b) Calculate the initial discharge current.

[2 marks]

(c) Calculate the time constant for the discharge.

[1 mark]

(d) Calculate the charge remaining after 4.0 s.

[2 marks]

(e) The student plots a graph of $\ln(Q/\mathrm{C})$ against t/s. State the gradient and y-intercept of this graph.

[2 marks]

Q7. A 50 μF and a 200 μF capacitor are connected in series and charged from a 15 V supply.

(a) Calculate the combined capacitance.

[2 marks]

(b) Calculate the energy stored in the combination.

[2 marks]

(c) The two capacitors are now reconnected in parallel across the same supply. Calculate the new total energy stored and explain why it differs from part (b).

[3 marks]

52 Mark Scheme and Answers

Q1. Capacitance is the charge stored per unit potential difference [1]; unit: farad (F) or C V^{-1} [1].

Q2. $C = Q/V = 360 \times 10^{-6}/12 = \mathbf{30}$ μF [2].

Q3(a). $\dfrac{1}{C_T} = \dfrac{1}{4.0} + \dfrac{1}{12} = \dfrac{3+1}{12} = \dfrac{4}{12}$ [1]; $C_T = \mathbf{3.0}$ μF [1].

Q3(b). $Q = C_T V = 3.0 \times 10^{-6} \times 6.0 = \mathbf{1.8 \times 10^{-5}}$ C [1].

Q3(c). Same charge on each capacitor in series; $V_1 = Q/C_1 = 1.8 \times 10^{-5}/(4.0 \times 10^{-6}) =$ **4.5** V [2].

Q4. The V–Q graph is a straight line through the origin [1]; the energy is the area under this graph (a triangle), which is $\frac{1}{2} \times \text{base} \times \text{height} = \frac{1}{2}QV$ — not QV because the voltage builds up gradually from 0 to V as charge is stored [1].

Q5. The time constant is the product RC [1]; it is the time taken for the charge (or voltage or current) to fall to $1/e \approx 37\%$ of its initial value [1]; after 2τ: $e^{-2} \approx \mathbf{13.5}\%$ remains [1].

Q6(a). $Q_0 = CV_0 = 100 \times 10^{-6} \times 20 = \mathbf{2.0 \times 10^{-3}}$ C [1].

Q6(b). $I_0 = V_0/R = 20/(25 \times 10^3)$ [1] $= \mathbf{8.0 \times 10^{-4}}$ A [1].

Q6(c). $\tau = RC = 25 \times 10^3 \times 100 \times 10^{-6} = \mathbf{2.5}$ s [1].

Q6(d). $Q = Q_0\, e^{-t/RC} = 2.0{\times}10^{-3}{\times}e^{-4.0/2.5}$ [1] $= 2.0{\times}10^{-3}{\times}e^{-1.6} = 2.0{\times}10^{-3}{\times}0.202 = \mathbf{4.0 \times 10^{-4}}$ C [1].

Q6(e). Gradient $= -1/RC = -1/2.5 = \mathbf{-0.40}$ $\mathbf{s^{-1}}$ [1]; y-intercept $= \ln Q_0 = \ln(2.0 \times 10^{-3}) = \mathbf{-6.2}$ [1].

Q7(a). $\dfrac{1}{C_T} = \dfrac{1}{50} + \dfrac{1}{200} = \dfrac{4+1}{200} = \dfrac{5}{200}$ [1]; $C_T = \mathbf{40}$ μF [1].

Q7(b). $W = \frac{1}{2}C_T V^2 = \frac{1}{2} \times 40 \times 10^{-6} \times 15^2$ [1] $= \mathbf{4.5 \times 10^{-3}}$ J [1].

Q7(c). $C_T = 50 + 200 = 250$ μF; $W = \frac{1}{2} \times 250 \times 10^{-6} \times 15^2$ [1] $= \mathbf{2.8 \times 10^{-2}}$ J [1]; more energy is stored in parallel because the total capacitance is greater — more charge is drawn from the supply [1].

53 Revision Checklist

Use this checklist to track your understanding. Tick each box when you are confident:

	Learning Objective	Confidence (1–3)
☐	Define capacitance; use $C = Q/V$	
☐	Calculate combined capacitance for series and parallel combinations	
☐	Derive the series and parallel formulae from $C = Q/V$	
☐	Use $W = \frac{1}{2}QV = \frac{1}{2}CV^2 = Q^2/2C$ for energy stored	
☐	Explain why energy stored is the area under a V–Q graph	
☐	Describe the exponential decay of Q, V and I during discharge	
☐	Use $x = x_0\, e^{-t/RC}$ for discharge of charge, voltage or current	
☐	Define the time constant $\tau = RC$ and state its physical significance	
☐	Determine τ from a discharge graph (directly or via $\ln Q$ vs t)	
☐	Sketch discharge curves for Q, V and I against time	
☐	Linearise the discharge equation and interpret gradient and intercept	

Key: 1 = Need more work 2 = Getting there 3 = Confident

Good luck with your revision!

The exponential decay of a capacitor is one of the most important mathematical forms in physics. Once you can recognise it, linearise it, and extract τ from a graph, you have a powerful tool that reappears throughout the course.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 20

Magnetic Fields

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Magnetic Fields and Field Lines
- Force on a Current-Carrying Conductor
- Force on a Moving Charge
- Hall Effect and Velocity Selector
- Magnetic Fields due to Currents
- Electromagnetic Induction

54 Magnetic Fields

Magnetic Field

A **magnetic field** is a region of space in which a moving charge, or a current-carrying conductor, experiences a force.

- Magnetic fields are produced by **moving charges** (electric currents) or by **permanent magnets**.
- The field is represented by **field lines** (flux lines); the direction is the direction of the force on a north pole.
- Field lines never cross; closer lines indicate a stronger field.
- Crosses ($\times$) represent field into the page; dots ($\bullet$) represent field out of the page.

55 Force on a Current-Carrying Conductor

Force on a Conductor

$$F = BIL\sin\theta$$

F = force on the conductor (N)
B = magnetic flux density (T)
I = current in the conductor (A)
L = length of conductor in the field (m)
θ = angle between the conductor and the field direction

Force is **maximum** when $\theta = 90°$ (conductor perpendicular to field): $F = BIL$.
Force is **zero** when $\theta = 0°$ (conductor parallel to field).

Magnetic Flux Density B

Magnetic flux density is defined as the force per unit current per unit length acting on a wire placed **at right angles** to the field.

$$B = \frac{F}{IL} \qquad \text{units: T (tesla)} \equiv \text{N A}^{-1}\text{m}^{-1}$$

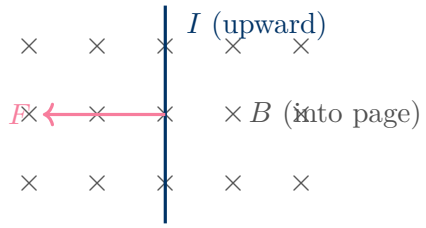
B is a vector quantity. 1 T is a strong field; Earth's field is $\approx 50\ \mu$T.

Fleming's Left-Hand Rule

For a **conventional current** in a magnetic field:

- **First finger**: direction of magnetic field B
- **Second finger**: direction of conventional current I
- **Thumb**: direction of force (motion) F

Remember: the rule gives the force on *positive* charges / conventional current. For electrons, reverse the direction.



56 Force on a Moving Charge

Force on a Moving Charge

$$F = BQv \sin\theta$$

F = magnetic force (N)
B = magnetic flux density (T)
Q = charge (C)
v = speed of the charge (m s^{-1})
θ = angle between velocity and field

For $\theta = 90°$: $F = BQv$, directed perpendicular to both v and B.

Circular Motion in a Magnetic Field

When a charged particle moves **perpendicular** to a uniform magnetic field, the magnetic force is always perpendicular to the velocity, so no work is done and the **speed is constant**. The particle moves in a **circle**:

$$BQv = \frac{mv^2}{r} \quad \Rightarrow \quad r = \frac{mv}{BQ}$$

A larger momentum or smaller B gives a larger radius.

56.1 The Hall Effect

Hall Voltage

When a current-carrying conductor is placed in a magnetic field perpendicular to the current, charge carriers experience a sideways force. They accumulate on one face until the electric force balances the magnetic force, producing the **Hall voltage**:

$$V_H = \frac{BI}{ntq}$$

V_H = Hall voltage (V)
B = magnetic flux density (T)
I = current through the conductor (A)
n = number density of charge carriers (m^{-3})
t = thickness of the conductor in the direction of B (m)
q = charge on each carrier (C)

A **Hall probe** uses this effect to measure B: since $V_H \propto B$ at constant I.

56.2 Velocity Selector

Velocity Selector

A velocity selector uses **crossed** electric and magnetic fields so that only particles with a specific speed pass through undeflected:

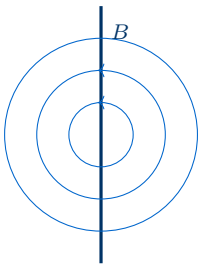
$$qE = BQv \quad \Rightarrow \quad v = \frac{E}{B}$$

- Electric force qE and magnetic force BQv act in **opposite** directions.
- Only particles where these forces balance travel in a straight line.
- Faster particles are deflected one way; slower particles the other.

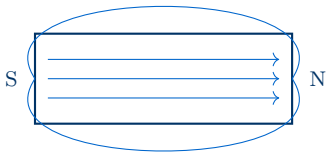
57 Magnetic Fields due to Currents

Field Patterns

- **Long straight wire**: concentric circles centred on the wire. Direction given by the **right-hand grip rule** — thumb points in direction of current, fingers curl in direction of field.
- **Flat circular coil**: field lines pass through the centre of the coil. Field at the centre is approximately uniform over a small region.
- **Long solenoid**: nearly uniform field inside, similar to a bar magnet outside. A **ferrous (iron) core** greatly increases the field strength.



Straight wire



Solenoid

Forces Between Parallel Conductors

- **Same direction currents**: conductors **attract** each other.
- **Opposite direction currents**: conductors **repel** each other.
- Each conductor sits in the magnetic field produced by the other; the force is given by $F = BIL$.

58 Electromagnetic Induction

Magnetic Flux

Magnetic flux Φ is the product of the magnetic flux density and the cross-sectional area perpendicular to the field:

$$\Phi = BA\cos\theta \qquad \text{units: Wb (weber)} \equiv \text{T m}^2$$

When B is perpendicular to the area: $\Phi = BA$.

Flux linkage $N\Phi$ is the flux through a single turn multiplied by the number of turns N of the coil: units Wb-turns.

Faraday's Law and Lenz's Law

$$\mathcal{E} = -\frac{\Delta(N\Phi)}{\Delta t}$$

Faraday's Law: the induced e.m.f. is proportional to the rate of change of flux linkage.

Lenz's Law: the induced e.m.f. (and hence current) acts in a direction that **opposes** the change in flux that caused it (the minus sign above).

$\mathcal{E}$ = induced e.m.f. (V)
N = number of turns
$\Delta\Phi/\Delta t$ = rate of change of flux (Wb s^{-1} $\equiv$ V)

Factors Affecting the Induced E.M.F.

- **Rate of change** of flux: faster change $\Rightarrow$ larger e.m.f.
- **Number of turns** N: more turns $\Rightarrow$ larger e.m.f.
- **Strength of field** B: stronger field $\Rightarrow$ larger flux change.
- **Area** of coil: larger area $\Rightarrow$ more flux.

Lenz's law is a consequence of conservation of energy — the induced current creates a force that opposes the motion causing induction.

Common Mistake

An e.m.f. is induced only when the flux is **changing**. A conductor stationary in a steady field has zero induced e.m.f., even if the field is strong.

59 Formula Summary Sheet

Formula	Quantity	Units
$F = BIL\sin\theta$	Force on current-carrying conductor	N
$F = BQv\sin\theta$	Force on moving charge	N
$r = mv/(BQ)$	Radius of circular orbit in B field	m
$V_H = BI/(ntq)$	Hall voltage	V
$v = E/B$	Velocity selector condition	m s^{-1}
$\Phi = BA\cos\theta$	Magnetic flux	Wb
$\mathcal{E} = -\Delta(N\Phi)/\Delta t$	Faraday's / Lenz's law	V

Units: 1 T = 1 N A^{-1}m^{-1}; 1 Wb = 1 T m^2 = 1 V s
Right-hand grip rule: thumb ∥ current, fingers curl in direction of B field.

60 Worked Examples

Example 1 — Force on a Conductor

Question: A wire of length 0.15 m carries a current of 3.0 A at 60° to a uniform field of 0.25 T. Calculate the force on the wire.

Solution

$$F = BIL\sin\theta = 0.25 \times 3.0 \times 0.15 \times \sin 60^\circ$$
$$F = 0.25 \times 3.0 \times 0.15 \times 0.866 = \mathbf{9.7 \times 10^{-2}}\ \text{N}$$

Example 2 — Circular Motion of a Charged Particle

Question: A proton (mass 1.67×10^{-27} kg, charge 1.6×10^{-19} C) moves at 2.0×10^6 m s^{-1} perpendicular to a field of 0.15 T. Calculate the radius of its circular path.

Solution

$$r = \frac{mv}{BQ} = \frac{1.67 \times 10^{-27} \times 2.0 \times 10^6}{0.15 \times 1.6 \times 10^{-19}} = \frac{3.34 \times 10^{-21}}{2.40 \times 10^{-20}} = \mathbf{0.14}\ \text{m}$$

Example 3 — Induced E.M.F.

Question: A coil of 200 turns and area 50 cm^2 is in a field of 0.30 T perpendicular to the plane of the coil. The field drops to zero in 0.040 s. Calculate the induced e.m.f.

Solution

$$\Delta\Phi = B \times A = 0.30 \times 50 \times 10^{-4} = 1.5 \times 10^{-3} \text{ Wb}$$
$$\mathcal{E} = N\frac{\Delta\Phi}{\Delta t} = 200 \times \frac{1.5 \times 10^{-3}}{0.040} = \mathbf{7.5} \text{ V}$$

61 Practice Exam Questions

Section A — Short Answer Questions

Q1. Define magnetic flux density and state its SI unit.

[2 marks]

Q2. A wire of length 8.0 cm is placed perpendicular to a field of flux density 0.40 T and carries a current of 2.5 A. Calculate the force on the wire.

[2 marks]

Q3. State Faraday's Law and Lenz's Law of electromagnetic induction.

[3 marks]

Q4. Explain why the speed of a charged particle moving perpendicular to a uniform magnetic field remains constant.

[2 marks]

Q5. A Hall probe gives a voltage of 3.2 mV when a current of 50 mA passes through a slice of thickness 2.0 mm in a field B. Given $n = 8.5 \times 10^{28}$ m^{-3} and $q = 1.6 \times 10^{-19}$ C, calculate B.

[3 marks]

Section B — Longer Structured Questions

Q6. An electron (mass 9.11×10^{-31} kg, charge 1.6×10^{-19} C) enters a uniform magnetic field of 2.0×10^{-3} T perpendicular to the field with speed 5.0×10^{6} m s^{-1}.

(a) Calculate the radius of the circular path followed by the electron.

[2 marks]

(b) The field strength is doubled. State and explain the effect on the radius.

[2 marks]

(c) An electric field is now applied perpendicular to B so that the electron travels in a straight line. Calculate the electric field strength required.

[2 marks]

Q7. A rectangular coil of 80 turns and dimensions 4.0 cm × 6.0 cm is placed with its plane perpendicular to a uniform field of 0.50 T.

(a) Calculate the flux linkage through the coil.

[2 marks]

(b) The coil is rotated so that its plane becomes parallel to the field in 0.030 s. Calculate the mean induced e.m.f.

[2 marks]

(c) State and explain the direction of the induced current using Lenz's law.

[2 marks]

62 Mark Scheme and Answers

Q1. Magnetic flux density is the force per unit current per unit length on a wire placed at right angles to the field [1]; unit: tesla (T) or N A^{-1} m^{-1} [1].

Q2. $F = BIL\sin 90° = 0.40 \times 2.5 \times 0.080 = \mathbf{0.080}$ N [2].

Q3. Faraday's Law: the induced e.m.f. is proportional to the rate of change of flux linkage [1]; $\mathcal{E} = -\Delta(N\Phi)/\Delta t$ [1]. Lenz's Law: the induced e.m.f. acts in a direction to oppose the change in flux that caused it [1].

Q4. The magnetic force is always perpendicular to the velocity [1]; a perpendicular force does no work, so kinetic energy and hence speed remain unchanged [1].

Q5. $B = V_H ntq/I = (3.2 \times 10^{-3} \times 8.5 \times 10^{28} \times 2.0 \times 10^{-3} \times 1.6 \times 10^{-19})/(50 \times 10^{-3})$ [2] $= \mathbf{0.174}$ T [1].

Q6(a). $r = mv/(BQ) = (9.11 \times 10^{-31} \times 5.0 \times 10^{6})/(2.0 \times 10^{-3} \times 1.6 \times 10^{-19})$ [1] $= \mathbf{1.4 \times 10^{-2}}$ m [1].

Q6(b). Radius halves [1]; $r = mv/BQ$, so $r \propto 1/B$; doubling B halves r [1].

Q6(c). For straight-line motion: $qE = BQv$; $E = Bv = 2.0 \times 10^{-3} \times 5.0 \times 10^{6} = \mathbf{1.0 \times 10^{4}}$ V m$^{\mathbf{-1}}$ [2].

Q7(a). $\Phi = BA = 0.50 \times (0.040 \times 0.060) = 1.2 \times 10^{-3}$ Wb [1]; flux linkage $= N\Phi = 80 \times 1.2 \times 10^{-3} = \mathbf{9.6 \times 10^{-2}}$ Wb-turns [1].

Q7(b). $\Delta(N\Phi) = 9.6 \times 10^{-2}$ Wb-turns (falls to zero) [1]; $\mathcal{E} = 9.6 \times 10^{-2}/0.030 = \mathbf{3.2}$ V [1].

Q7(c). By Lenz's law the induced current opposes the decrease in flux [1]; the current flows in the direction that would create a field to oppose the rotation / maintain the flux through the coil [1].

63 Revision Checklist

Use this checklist to track your understanding. Tick each box when you are confident:

	Learning Objective	Confidence (1–3)
☐	Define magnetic flux density; use $F = BIL\sin\theta$	
☐	Apply Fleming's left-hand rule to find force directions	
☐	Use $F = BQv\sin\theta$ for force on a moving charge	
☐	Derive and use $r = mv/(BQ)$ for circular orbit radius	
☐	Explain and use the Hall effect; use $V_H = BI/(ntq)$	
☐	Explain the velocity selector condition $v = E/B$	
☐	Sketch field patterns for straight wire, circular coil and solenoid	
☐	Apply the right-hand grip rule for field direction around a wire	
☐	Explain forces between parallel current-carrying conductors	
☐	Define magnetic flux $\Phi = BA\cos\theta$ and flux linkage $N\Phi$	
☐	State and apply Faraday's and Lenz's laws	
☐	Identify factors that affect the magnitude of induced e.m.f.	

Key: 1 = Need more work 2 = Getting there 3 = Confident

Good luck with your revision!

Faraday's law — one equation — explains the generator, the transformer, and the electric motor. Master flux linkage and you understand how almost all electrical power is generated.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 21

Alternating Currents

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Characteristics of Alternating Currents
- R.M.S. Values and Power
- Half-Wave Rectification
- Full-Wave (Bridge) Rectification
- Smoothing with a Capacitor

64 Characteristics of Alternating Currents

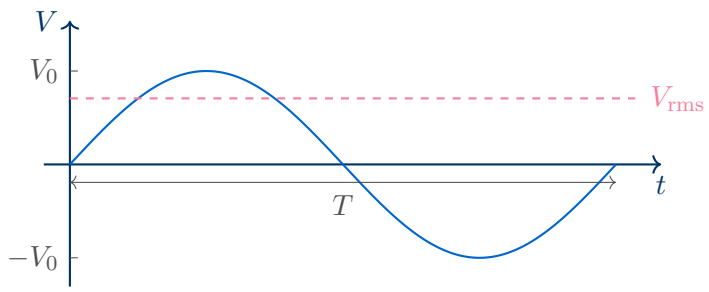
Alternating Current

An **alternating current** (a.c.) reverses direction periodically. For a sinusoidal a.c.:

$$I = I_0 \sin \omega t \qquad V = V_0 \sin \omega t$$

- I_0, V_0: **peak** (amplitude) values.
- $\omega = 2\pi f = 2\pi/T$: angular frequency (rad s^{-1}).
- T: period (s); f: frequency (Hz).
- UK mains supply: $f = 50$ Hz, $T = 20$ ms, $V_{\text{rms}} = 230$ V.

Sinusoidal a.c. voltage waveform



65 R.M.S. Values and Power

Root-Mean-Square (R.M.S.) Value

The **r.m.s. value** of an alternating current is defined as the value of steady direct current that would dissipate the **same power** in a purely resistive load.

R.M.S. Formulae

$$I_{\text{rms}} = \frac{I_0}{\sqrt{2}} \qquad V_{\text{rms}} = \frac{V_0}{\sqrt{2}}$$

These apply to **sinusoidal** waveforms only. For other waveforms the factor $1/\sqrt{2}$ changes.

Mean Power in a Resistive Load

$$P_{\text{mean}} = \tfrac{1}{2}P_{\text{max}} = \tfrac{1}{2}I_0^2 R = I_{\text{rms}}^2 R = \frac{V_{\text{rms}}^2}{R}$$

The mean power is **half** the peak power for a sinusoidal waveform.

Why Use R.M.S.?

- The mean value of a sinusoidal current is **zero** — useless for power calculations.
- R.M.S. values allow direct use of d.c. power formulae ($P = IV$, $P = I^2R$, $P = V^2/R$).
- Meters and ratings (e.g. 230 V mains) always quote r.m.s. values.

Common Mistake

Do not use peak values in power calculations. Always convert to r.m.s. first: $V_{\text{rms}} = V_0/\sqrt{2}$. The peak mains voltage is $230\sqrt{2} \approx 325$ V, not 230 V.

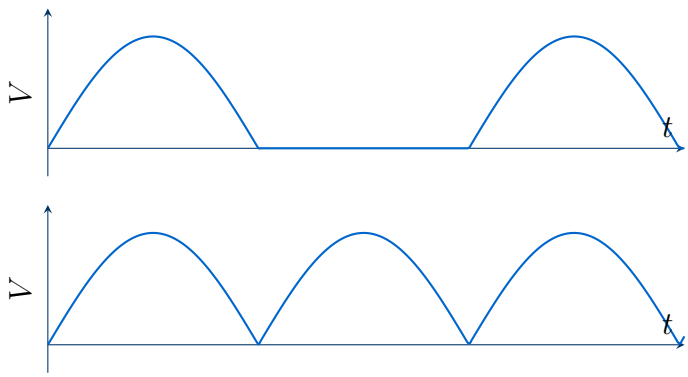
66 Rectification

Rectification

Rectification converts alternating current into direct current flowing in one direction only.

- **Half-wave rectification**: a single diode passes only the positive (or negative) half-cycles; output is a series of pulses with gaps.
- **Full-wave rectification**: a bridge rectifier (four diodes) inverts the negative half-cycles, producing a continuous pulsating d.c. output with no gaps.

Comparison of rectified outputs

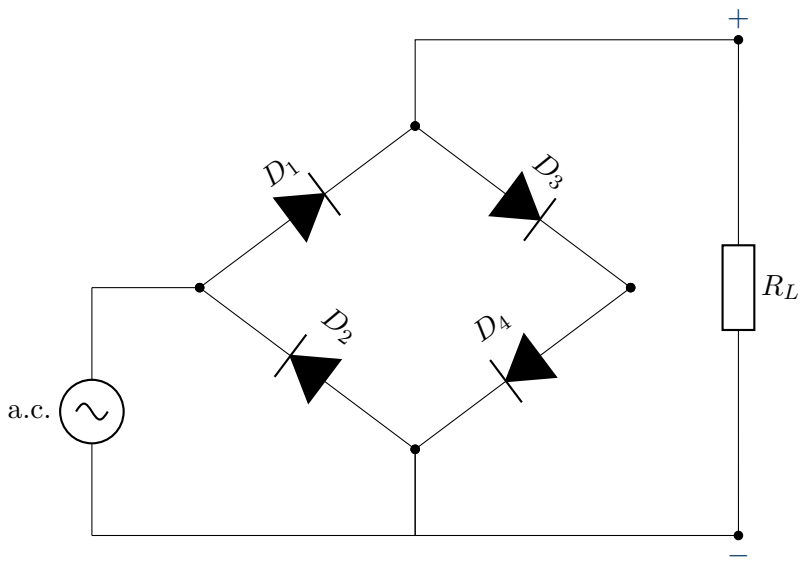


66.1 Bridge Rectifier

Bridge Rectifier

A bridge rectifier uses **four diodes** arranged in a diamond so that:

- During the **positive half-cycle**: current flows through diodes D1 and D4, through the load in the positive direction.
- During the **negative half-cycle**: current flows through diodes D2 and D3, but still through the load in the **same** direction.
- Both half-cycles contribute to the output — no wasted half-cycles.



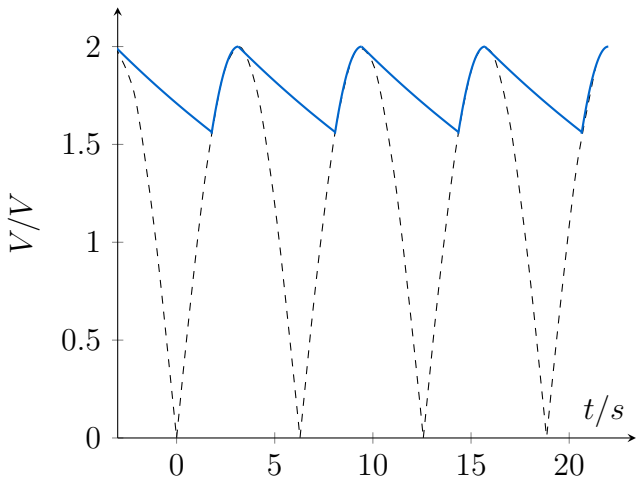
67 Smoothing with a Capacitor

Smoothing

A capacitor connected in **parallel with the load** reduces the ripple on a rectified output:

- The capacitor **charges up** rapidly to the peak voltage during each pulse.
- It **discharges slowly** through the load R_L between peaks, maintaining a more constant voltage.
- The output has a small residual **ripple voltage** rather than falling to zero between pulses.
- **Larger** C or **larger** R_L: longer time constant $\tau = CR_L$, less ripple.
- **Smaller** C or **smaller** R_L: faster discharge, larger ripple.

Effect of smoothing capacitor on full-wave rectified output



Common Mistake

In exam questions, always link ripple size explicitly to the time constant $\tau = CR_L$ — just saying "bigger capacitor" without explanation will not earn full marks.

68 Formula Summary Sheet

Formula	Quantity	Units
$I = I_0 \sin \omega t$	Sinusoidal alternating current	A
$V = V_0 \sin \omega t$	Sinusoidal alternating voltage	V
$\omega = 2\pi f = 2\pi/T$	Angular frequency	rad s^{-1}
$I_{rms} = I_0/\sqrt{2}$	R.M.S. current	A
$V_{rms} = V_0/\sqrt{2}$	R.M.S. voltage	V
$P_{mean} = \frac{1}{2} I_0^2 R$	Mean power (peak values)	W
$P_{mean} = I_{rms}^2 R = V_{rms}^2/R$	Mean power (r.m.s. values)	W

UK mains: $V_{rms} = 230$ V; $f = 50$ Hz; $V_0 = 230\sqrt{2} \approx 325$ V
Note: $1/\sqrt{2} \approx 0.707$; $P_{mean} = \frac{1}{2} P_{max}$ for sinusoidal waveform only.

69 Worked Examples

Example 1 — R.M.S. and Peak Values

Question: The mains supply has $V_{rms} = 230$ V at 50 Hz. Find (a) the peak voltage, (b) the angular frequency and (c) the mean power in a 1.2 kΩ resistor.

Solution

(a) $V_0 = V_{rms}\sqrt{2} = 230\sqrt{2} = \mathbf{325}$ V

(b) $\omega = 2\pi f = 2\pi \times 50 = \mathbf{314}$ rad s^{-1}

(c) $P = V_{rms}^2/R = 230^2/(1.2 \times 10^3) = 52900/1200 = \mathbf{44}$ W

Example 2 — Peak Power and Mean Power

Question: An a.c. supply has peak voltage $V_0 = 12$ V and is connected to a 60 Ω resistor. Calculate (a) the peak power and (b) the mean power dissipated.

Solution

(a) $P_{\text{max}} = V_0^2/R = 144/60 = \mathbf{2.4}$ W

(b) $P_{\text{mean}} = \frac{1}{2}P_{\text{max}} = \mathbf{1.2}$ W

Or equivalently: $V_{\text{rms}} = 12/\sqrt{2}$; $P = V_{\text{rms}}^2/R = 72/60 = 1.2$ W

Example 3 — Smoothing

Question: A full-wave rectifier feeds a 470 μF smoothing capacitor in parallel with a 2.2 kΩ load. Calculate the time constant and comment on the degree of smoothing for a 50 Hz supply.

Solution

$\tau = CR = 470 \times 10^{-6} \times 2200 = \mathbf{1.03}$ s

The period of the full-wave rectified signal is $T/2 = 1/(2 \times 50) = 10$ ms.

Since $\tau = 1.03$ s $\gg$ 10 ms, the capacitor discharges very little between peaks — the output is well smoothed with very small ripple.

70 Practice Exam Questions

Section A — Short Answer Questions

Q1. Explain what is meant by the r.m.s. value of an alternating current and state why it is more useful than the peak value.

[3 marks]

Q2. An a.c. supply has peak voltage 340 V. Calculate (a) the r.m.s. voltage and (b) the mean power delivered to a 680 Ω resistor.

[3 marks]

Q3. Distinguish between half-wave and full-wave rectification. State the number of diodes required for each.

[3 marks]

Q4. Explain how a capacitor connected in parallel with a load resistor smooths a rectified output. State the effect of increasing the capacitance.

[3 marks]

Section B — Longer Structured Questions

Q5. The alternating voltage from a supply is given by $V = 170\sin(100\pi t)$, where V is in volts and t is in seconds.

(a) State the peak voltage and the frequency of the supply.

[2 marks]

(b) Calculate the r.m.s. voltage.

[1 mark]

(c) The supply is connected to a 500 Ω resistor. Calculate the mean power dissipated.

[2 marks]

(d) The supply is now passed through a bridge rectifier and a smoothing capacitor of 1000 μF is connected in parallel with the 500 Ω load. Calculate the time constant and comment on the effectiveness of smoothing.

[3 marks]

Q6. The graph below represents the output of a full-wave rectifier before smoothing. The peak voltage is 12 V and the supply frequency is 50 Hz.

(a) State the frequency of the rectified output.

[1 mark]

(b) On the same axes, sketch the output after connecting a large smoothing capacitor in parallel with the load. Indicate the approximate ripple voltage.

[2 marks]

(c) Explain what happens to the smoothing if the load resistance is reduced.

[2 marks]

71 Mark Scheme and Answers

Q1. The r.m.s. value is the equivalent steady d.c. that dissipates the same power in a resistive load [1]; it is more useful because power formulae ($P = I^2R$, $P = V^2/R$) can be applied directly [1]; the mean of a sinusoidal current is zero, so it gives no information about power [1].

Q2(a). $V_{\text{rms}} = V_0/\sqrt{2} = 340/\sqrt{2} = \mathbf{240}$ V [1]. **Q2(b).** $P = V_{\text{rms}}^2/R = 240^2/680 = 57600/680 = \mathbf{85}$ W [2].

Q3. Half-wave: uses **1 diode**; only one half of each cycle is passed; output has gaps of zero voltage [1]. Full-wave: uses **4 diodes** (bridge rectifier); both half-cycles are used; output is always positive with no gaps [2].

Q4. The capacitor charges to the peak voltage during each pulse [1]; between pulses it discharges slowly through the load, maintaining a more constant output voltage [1]; increasing C increases the time constant $\tau = CR$, so the capacitor discharges less between pulses and the ripple is smaller [1].

Q5(a). Peak voltage $V_0 = \mathbf{170}$ V [1]; $\omega = 100\pi$, so $f = \omega/2\pi = 100\pi/2\pi = \mathbf{50}$ Hz [1].

Q5(b). $V_{\text{rms}} = 170/\sqrt{2} = \mathbf{120}$ V [1].

Q5(c). $P = V_{\text{rms}}^2/R = (120)^2/500$ [1] $= 14400/500 = \mathbf{28.8}$ W [1].

Q5(d). $\tau = CR = 1000 \times 10^{-6} \times 500 = \mathbf{0.50}$ s [1]; period of full-wave output $= 1/(2 \times 50) = 10$ ms [1]; $\tau \gg T/2$ so capacitor barely discharges between peaks — very effective smoothing with tiny ripple [1].

Q6(a). The full-wave rectified output has frequency $2 \times 50 = \mathbf{100}$ Hz [1].

Q6(b). Sketch: smoothed output just below 12 V with small sawtooth ripple; ripple voltage is the small oscillation between the capacitor charge and discharge levels [2].

Q6(c). Reducing load resistance increases the discharge current [1]; the capacitor discharges faster between peaks ($\tau = CR$ decreases), so the ripple voltage increases and smoothing is less effective [1].

72 Revision Checklist

Use this checklist to track your understanding. Tick each box when you are confident:

	Learning Objective	Confidence (1–3)
☐	Define period, frequency and peak value for an a.c. waveform	
☐	Use $x = x_0 \sin \omega t$ for sinusoidal current or voltage	
☐	Define r.m.s. value and explain why it is useful	
☐	Use $I_{\text{rms}} = I_0/\sqrt{2}$ and $V_{\text{rms}} = V_0/\sqrt{2}$	
☐	Calculate mean power using r.m.s. values: $P = I_{\text{rms}}^2 R = V_{\text{rms}}^2/R$	
☐	State that mean power is half peak power for sinusoidal a.c.	
☐	Distinguish half-wave and full-wave rectification graphically	
☐	Explain the action of a single diode for half-wave rectification	
☐	Explain the action of a bridge rectifier (four diodes)	
☐	Explain smoothing by a capacitor in terms of charge/discharge	
☐	Analyse the effect of C and R_L on the time constant and ripple	

Key: 1 = Need more work 2 = Getting there 3 = Confident

Good luck with your revision!

R.M.S. values are one of physics's most elegant ideas: a way to make a continuously varying quantity equivalent to a steady one. Once you see that $P_{\text{mean}} = \frac{1}{2}P_{\text{max}}$ comes directly from $\langle \sin^2 \rangle = \frac{1}{2}$, the whole topic falls into place.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 22

Quantum Physics

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Energy and Momentum of a Photon
- The Photoelectric Effect
- Wave-Particle Duality
- Energy Levels and Line Spectra

73 Energy and Momentum of a Photon

74 The Photoelectric Effect

75 Wave-Particle Duality

76 Energy Levels and Line Spectra

Good luck with your revision!

Remember: understanding *why* formulas work is more powerful than memorising them.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 23

Nuclear Physics

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Mass Defect and Binding Energy
- Nuclear Fission and Fusion
- Radioactive Decay

77 Mass Defect and Binding Energy

78 Nuclear Fission and Fusion

79 Radioactive Decay

Good luck with your revision!

Remember: understanding *why* formulas work is more powerful than memorising them.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 24

Medical Physics

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Production and Use of Ultrasound
- Production and Use of X-rays
- PET Scanning

80 Production and Use of Ultrasound

81 Production and Use of X-rays

82 PET Scanning

Good luck with your revision!

Remember: understanding *why* formulas work is more powerful than memorising them.

CIE International A Level Physics

Topic 25

Astronomy and Cosmology

Revision Booklet

This booklet covers:

- Standard Candles
- Stellar Radii
- Hubble's Law and the Big Bang

83 Standard Candles

84 Stellar Radii

85 Hubble's Law and the Big Bang

Good luck with your revision!

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